Immigrant Rights Expansion and Local Integration: Evidence from Italy

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Abstract

We study how expanding immigrants' rights affects their political and social integration by leveraging Romania's 2007 EU accession, which granted Romanian immigrants in Italy municipal voting and residency rights. Using municipality-level event-study, we find: (1) Enfranchisement increased the election of Romanian-born councilors — especially in competitive races — despite limited changes in candidacy rates. It also increased Romanian turnout suggesting electoral gains stem from an expanded voter base. An instrumented difference-in-differences analysis shows this is driven by pre-existing residents, not new arrivals. (2) Consent to organ donation rose among Romanians post-2007, indicating that the expansion of rights extends to prosocial behavior. (3) Nonetheless, immigrant presence continues to raise support for right-leaning parties and security spending while reducing social spending, highlighting persistent native backlash that outweighs immigrant political influence.

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1 Introduction

Globalization continues to play an important role in shaping the modern world. With a world population of migrants approaching 300 million (World Migration Report 2024), immigration is often a topic at the forefront of political debates in advanced economies. Scholars have argued for decades that free mobility of labor brings economic benefits (Hamilton and Whalley 1984; Clemens 2011; Kennan 2013; Foged et al. 2022). However, many countries have experienced that these economic benefits are often accompanied by rather negative social outcomes such as social segregation and marginalization of migrants (Bauder 2006), as well as political backlash and polarization (Barone et al. 2016; Becker and Fetzer 2016; Halla et al. 2017; Viskanic 2017; Barrera et al. 2020; Tabellini 2020; Koukal et al. 2021; Mayda et al. 2022). It is essential to understand the measures governments can implement to mitigate the negative effects while maximizing the benefits of labor mobility.

Naturalization is generally considered a process that fosters integration via the expansion of immigrants' rights. However, in practice, citizenship is hardly a solution in the short run for multiple reasons. First, obtaining citizenship via residency is typically a long process for foreigners, with most countries requiring at least five years of residency to be eligible and many requiring at least ten years. Second, reforming the process of citizenship acquisition is generally among the most divisive topics, making it difficult to substantially speed up the process. Finally, naturalization can be costly for immigrants. Some countries require individuals to renounce their original citizenship in the event of naturalization. Even when this is not the case, citizenship can have consequences on the individual's cultural identity, which may itself generate negative effects (Dahl et al. 2022).

Milder forms of expanding rights for migrants have been adopted around the world. For example, many countries grant foreign residents the right to vote in local or even national elections. In the UK, commonwealth citizens who are residents are allowed to vote in various elections, including general elections, and are eligible to run for most political offices.[1]

[1] On the effect of immigrant enfranchisement on outcomes other than integration, see Bhatiya (2025),

Another example is the implementation of legalization processes for undocumented migrants in most Western countries, which help facilitate their path to legal residency. In 1986 the U.S. enacted IRCA (Immigration Reform and Control Act), one of the largest legalization programs for migrants (Casarico et al. 2018), through which 2.8 million undocumented migrants gained permanent legal status. More recently, an interesting case of migrant rights expansion has emerged through the accession of new member states to the European Union and the subsequent acquisition of EU citizenship by their nationals. Citizens of these new member states who reside in another EU country gain the right to live there without a visa, as well as the right to vote and run in local elections.

This paper exploits Romania's accession to the European Union in 2007 to study how the resulting expansion of political and residency rights for Romanians in Italy, who represent the country's largest immigrant group, affected their local political representation and prosocial behavior.[2] It also investigates how these changes influenced the ideology of elected municipal officials and public finance more broadly. Following Romania's accession to the European Union, Romanian citizens residing in Italy gained the right to vote and stand in municipal elections, as well as enhanced residency rights. We implement an event-study analysis around 2007 to estimate the effects of this expansion of rights. To isolate these effects from broader trends relating to immigrants, we conduct placebo tests for Albanian and Moroccan immigrants, the second and third largest immigrant groups in Italy and are not enfranchised.

Our first set of results shows an increase in Romanian representation after 2007 in Italian municipalities with large Romanian populations and attributes this effect to an increase in the demand of Romanian politicians. We do not find an increase in representation among the two other major non-enfranchised immigrant groups, namely Albanians and Moroccans,

Razin and Sadka (2017), Engdahl et al. (2020), and Ferwerda (2021).

[2]Although Bulgaria jointed the EU at the same time as Romania, we focus mainly on Romanians as Bulgarians make up a small fraction of the immigrant population, consistently accounting for less than 5% of the number of Romanians in Italy. We confirm, in robustness checks, that including Bulgarians in the analysis does not affect our results.

suggesting these results are not caused by trends relating to immigrants in general. Our additional findings point to an increase in demand for Romanian representation, rather than just an increase in candidate supply, as the main driver of the results. First, we look at the supply of foreign-born (elected or non-elected) candidates after 2007. While we see an increase in Romanian-born candidates we also find a virtually identical increase among Albanian candidates, suggesting that supply alone cannot explain the differential success of Romanian representation. Second, we find evidence that Romanian citizens actively exercised their newly acquired voting rights, indicating that ethnic voting may have played a role. Third, a triple-difference analysis reveals that municipalities expecting competitive elections are more likely to elect Romanian-born councilors. This suggests that political parties may have strategically included minority candidates to attract votes from the newly enfranchised Romanian voters. Indeed for this first outcome, the most relevant change brought about by obtaining EU citizenship is the extension of voting rights.

Our second result is that the effect of obtaining EU citizenship extends beyond political participation to prosocial behavior. We observe an increase in prosocial behavior, measured by consent to organ donation, among Romanian immigrants in Italy following Romania's accession to the EU in 2007. We hypothesize that this reflects an increase in the sense of belonging and a stronger commitment to the host locality. The residency rights conferred by EU citizenship likely increased expectations of long-term settlement, while the expansion of political rights provided greater opportunities for civic engagement. Supporting this, we find a significant post-2007 increase in the number of Romanian immigrants registering as potential organ donors at the municipal level, even after controlling for the size of the Romanian population. We do not observe a similar trend for Albanian or Moroccan immigrants, suggesting that the observed increase among Romanians is driven by the acquisition of EU citizenship.

These findings raise the question of whether the observed effects are attributable to long-term Romanian residents or more recent arrivals. We complement the event-study analyses on political representation and prosocial behavior with an instrumental variables approach. Specifically, we instrument for the share of newly arrived Romanians using a combination of cross-sectoral demand for foreign labor in Italy and Romanian outflows to non-Italian destinations. We find that the effects on both political representation and prosocial behavior are driven by Romanians who migrated to Italy prior to accession, indicating the expansion of rights facilitated the integration of long-term residents.

In light of the increase in representation and changes in the electorate following enfranchisement, we examine whether the political orientation of winning parties shifts to reflect the preferences of newly enfranchised voters. In particular, right-leaning parties in Italy have either advocated for anti-immigrant policies themselves or have been in a coalition with those that did, during our observation period. However, we find an overall trend of increase in support for right-wing parties in municipalities with more immigrants. This pattern holds both in municipalities with larger Romanian populations and in those with other immigrant groups, such as Albanians and Moroccans. That is, the winning party is more likely to be correlated with the presence of any immigrant community than with the presence of an immigrant community with voting rights. This aligns with findings from Barone et al. (2016), who show increased support for the center-right coalition in both national and mayoral elections in response to immigration.

Finally, since local public finances are managed by the municipal government, we examine whether local expenditure patterns change as Romanian immigrant obtain stronger political rights. In particular, we examine whether municipalities increase spending in categories likely to benefit Romanian immigrants in an effort to appeal to new constituents. However, we find that municipalities with a higher immigrant presence show an increase in public security spending and a decrease in social spending as shares of total expenditure. Importantly, we find no statistical difference between municipalities with enfranchised immigrants (Romanians) and those with non-enfranchised immigrant groups (Albanians or Moroccans). This suggests that the increase in the likelihood of a right-leaning party winning in municipal elections is driven by the natives' reaction to the presence of immigrants, rather than by parties responding to the preferences of the newly enfranchised group.

Our paper contributes to two strands of literature. First, it contributes to the literature on immigrant integration and legal rights. Prior work shows that legalization of previously undocumented immigrants improves their labor market outcomes (Kossoudji and Cobb-Clark (2002) , Lozano and Sorensen (2011), Pan (2012), and Steigleder and Sparber (2017), reduces crime among them (Mastrobuoni and Pinotti (2015) and Pinotti (2017)), increases tax compliance (Cascio and Lewis 2019) and an raises state transfers to immigrant-populated regions (Sabet and Winter (2024)). Naturalization also boosts social integration (Hainmueller et al. (2017)) and labor market outcomes (Gathmann and Keller (2017), though the timing of political participation opportunities does not affect political integration (Engdahl et al. (2020)). Relatedly, Razin and Sadka (2017) model redistribution effects based on immigrant enfranchisement and skill levels, and Ferwerda (2021) shows that redistribution changes with immigrants' voting rights. Bhatiya (2025) finds that politicians cater to immigrants' needs in political discourse following immigrant enfranchisement. However, to the best of our knowledge, no study has examined the joint impact of expanded voting and residency rights.

We contribute to this literature in three ways. First, we show that enfranchisement has immediate effects on political representation. Municipalities with more Romanian citizens are significantly more likely to elect Romanian-born councilors. Second, we find that expanding immigrants' voting and residency rights enhances their integration and prosocial behavior. Third, we identify the mechanism behind the increase in representation. Specifically, we show that a rise in candidate supply alone is insufficient; it is the combination of increased demand for (enfranchised-)minority politicians and the integration of medium- to long-term resident immigrants that drives greater political representation.

More broadly, our paper relates to the long-standing literature on enfranchisement, particularly studies on women's suffrage and the U.S. Voting Rights Act. Studies find that women's suffrage influenced government size, social and education spending, and political preferences (Lott and Kenny 1999; Abrams and Settle 1999; Washington 2008; Aidt and Dallal 2008; Funk and Gathmann 2015; Cascio and Shenhav 2020; Kose et al. 2020) The Voting Rights Act increased voter turnout and state transfers (Cascio and Washington 2014) and altered policing (Facchini et al. 2020), though it also triggered backlash among white constituents (Bernini et al. 2023). We contribute to this literature by focusing on migrants, who constitute the largest over-age group without voting rights in democratic countries.

Finally, we contribute to the literature on local politicians by hand-collecting the largest existing dataset of non-elected candidates in Italian municipal elections, one of the most commonly studied settings in this literature.

2 Setting

Italy is an ideal setting to study the effects of expanding immigrant rights and integration for three reasons. First, it has a significant foreign population. In 2020, there were over five million foreign citizens, which constituted 10.4 percent of the total population in 2019 (OECD 2022). Second, since Italy is a member state of the EU, foreign nationals can participate in local elections and legally reside in Italy without a visa as long as they are EU citizens. Third, Italy has around eight thousand local governments (municipalities), where EU citizens can vote and get elected, which allows for fine-grained data and large variations. Finally, municipal offices accessible to EU citizens are virtually pro-bono, which isolates the strictly political, rather than financial or career-related, dimension of local representation.

Since 1990, Italy has constantly experienced net in-migration flows, with migrants arriving mainly from Romania, Albania and Morocco.[3] Italy, together with Spain, is the main destination country for Romanian migrants, hosting 300,000 of them in 2005 and almost 1.2 million in 2017 (Figure 1). As can be seen in Figure 2, migrants of all origins tend to concentrate in the northern and central parts of the country, where the majority of manufacturing jobs are located. The regions with the most migrants are the four main northern regions

[3] Source: Istituto Cattaneo

(Lombardy, Piedmont, Emilia-Romagna, and Veneto) and the central regions of Tuscany and Lazio. Romanians in particular are mainly concentrated in Lazio, Lombardy, and Piedmont. Although the general region of residence is similar for different migrant communities, we still see variation in the specific municipality that has more Romanian migrants compared to the other groups as illustrated in Figure 3.

2.1 EU Immigrants' Voting Rights

EU Council Directive 94/80/EC (1994) requires every member state to extend the right to vote in municipal elections—and to run as candidates—to EU citizens residing in a member state of which they are not nationals. Italy adopted the directive in 1996 and issued a law granting non-Italian EU citizens access to electoral contests at the municipality level.[4] The law gave non-Italian EU citizens the full right to vote in municipal elections, with the sole condition that they register for a special list of non-Italian potential voters who are residents in the municipality. Registration is only required for non-Italians who are voting for the first time in the municipality. The law also regulates the right of non-Italian EU citizens to run as candidates. Upon providing documentation from the home country proving that the individual indeed possesses the right to be elected back home, they are allowed to run for any municipal office with the exception of mayor or vice-mayor.

2.2 Romania's Accession to the EU

Due to the enlargement of the EU, the set of nationalities covered by the aforementioned laws is not fixed over time. When the enfranchisement laws were first introduced, the EU was mainly composed of western European countries. Thus, only western Europeans residing in Italy were initially granted the right to vote for Italian municipal governments. However, as new countries were admitted to the EU, different immigrant groups were granted the right to vote and the right to candidacy. A first wave of expansion of the EU towards

[4] Law 1996, n.197

East happened in 2004, when a large pool of mostly eastern European countries became member states.[5] The second was in 2007, when Romania and Bulgaria joined the EU. The latter expansion was particularly consequential for Italy, as it enfranchised a large part of its migrant population.

Becoming EU citizens had beneficial consequences for Romanians residing in Italy. First, they no longer needed a visa or a residence permit to reside and work in Italy, although they still needed to register in an Italian municipality and get an Italian fiscal code like all other EU citizens. Second, they could participate in local elections, as discussed in Section 2.1. Third, they became eligible for an expedited naturalization process, which reduced the residency requirement from ten to four years (with an additional two to three years of waiting time for approval). However, in Italy, only years of residence accrued after 2007 counted toward this fast-track naturalization, meaning no Romanian could obtain Italian citizenship through the expedited procedure before 2014.

Joining the EU thus granted Romanians easier access to the Italian labor market by eliminating the need for visas or residence permits. It also allowed them access to all public sector jobs, including those typically restricted for non-EU citizens (such as police officers, or the army). However, full access to the Italian labor market was not immediate for Romanians. Instead, it was introduced gradually, as existing EU member states were permitted to impose temporary restrictions on labor market access during a transitional period. Until 2012, Italy imposed a quota system and required Romanians to obtain a work permit, only allowing a certain number of new Romanian workers per sector. Exceptions were made for certain sectors—including agriculture, hospitality, construction, and domestic work—as well as for highly qualified professionals, who were not required to obtain a work permit.

We use a survey conducted by the Vienna Institute for International Economic Studies (WIIW) on Romanian Migrants in Italy before and after Romania's accession to the EU to understand the difference in demographic and economic characteristics between Romanians

[5] These include the Czech Republic, Estonia, Hungary, Latvia, Lithuania, Poland, Slovakia, Slovenia, Cyprus and Malta

who had migrated to Italy prior to the accession and those who arrived afterward. The survey interviewed a thousand individuals in 2011. We use national weights provided by the survey to obtain nationally representative statistics. Table 1 displays statistics on age, marital status, existence of dependent children, education, income, and voter registration status for those arrived during 2004–2006 and 2007–2011 respectively. Newly arrived Romanians are significantly more likely to be younger, single, and less educated. In addition, they are less likely to have any dependent children or to be registered to vote.

Table 2 shows the employment share of Romanian migrants by sector, before and after 2007. We see that the newly arrived are 6.14 percentage points more likely to be looking for work, reflecting the fact that they could migrate without a visa, typically obtained via employment. The distribution across sectors also reflects whether a working permit was required: indeed newly arrived Romanians were 5 percentage points less likely to be employed in manufacturing but 4.1 percentage points more likely to be employed in construction, which became the most popular sector among them. Finally, despite the theoretical lifting of restrictions, there is no sign of increase in the number of Romanians employed in the public sector.

2.3 Municipal Governments in Italy

Non-Italian EU citizens who are residents of Italy can vote in municipal elections. Municipalities constitute the lowest level of government in all of Italy. While the size of a municipality ranges from a few hundred inhabitants to approximately 2.5 million (Rome), the median municipality has 2,293 residents. Figure 4 shows the distribution of population across municipalities. To give a sense of the granularity of the data, even at the ninetieth percentile, the municipal population is just 12,212.

Each municipality functions as a local government and is managed by a mayor and a municipal council. The size of the council increases discontinuously with the municipal population. It ranges from a minimum and median of twelve councilors to a maximum of sixty (respectively ten and forty-eight, after 2011). The mayor is directly elected by the municipal population. The candidate whose party or supporting coalition receives the most votes becomes the mayor. Two-thirds of the council seats are then allocated to that party or coalition, while the remaining seats are proportionally distributed among the opposition parties.[6] The constituents also vote for their most preferred councilor candidate and, within each party, the candidates who receive the most votes are elected.[7] Municipal elections in Italy have high turnout rates, generally comparable to those for the general election and always exceeding sixty percent from 2000 to 2020, as depicted in Figure 5.

Municipal councilors generally convene once a month to deliberate and vote on local issues. They generally earn less than 300 euros per year, which rules out significant financial or career incentives—–especially for foreigners, who cannot access higher political offices. As a result, the primary motivation to run is often a desire to participate in and help shape local community life.

3 Data

We combine multiple data sources to construct the dataset for our analysis. The main dataset, from the Italian National Institute of Statistics (ISTAT), includes the number of foreign residents and their citizenship status for approximately eight thousand municipalities, from 2003 to 2018.[8] The level of analysis is municipality-by-year. The summary statistics of our variables are provided in Table 3.

3.1 Electoral Data

We merge our main dataset with electoral data to study various political outcomes including political representation and political orientation of the winning party. We use data from

[6]In cities above 15,000 inhabitants a two-round election replaces the simple plurality voting.

[7]When expressing their preference, voters can typically find some information about the councilor candidate on the ballot, including age and place of birth. See Figure A.1 in the Appendix for example.

[8]Because of municipality splits and mergers, the number of municipalities may differ from year to year.

the "Anagrafe degli amministratori locali" provided by the Italian Ministry of Interior to gather information on all elected municipal representatives between 1986 and 2020. The dataset provides personal information on all municipal elected officials who are in office on the 31st of December every year. In particular, we collect their office (councilor, mayor, etc.), municipality of birth, level of education, and political party. For representatives born outside Italy, the country of birth is listed instead of the municipality of birth. However, we do not observe their citizenship status.

We augment our dataset by adding information on all municipal and regional electoral returns between 2000 and 2020, as provided by the Italian Ministry of the Interior. In particular, we gather information on the exact election date, the total number of registered voters and the turnout in municipal elections, as well as the number of votes gained by every party. Moreover, we use electoral outcomes for regional elections, namely the number of registered voters and votes cast, collected at the municipality level, and compare it to the same outcomes in simultaneous municipal elections.

We also conducted a large-scale data collection effort of original electoral records. In Italy, data on the universe of *candidates* in municipal elections do not exist, because the government only collects information on *elected* officials. To address this, we contacted all Italian municipalities by email, requesting that they send us their complete electoral rosters starting from 2002. Figure A.1 is an example of an electoral roster we digitized. Among the municipalities that responded, we digitized those for which at least one pre-2008 electoral roster was available. In the end, we obtained data for 333 municipalities for which we have the birthplaces of the candidates. For additional 343 municipalities, we collected the names of all candidates, but not their birthplaces, and in these cases we assigned nationality based on the origin of the name.[9]

[9] In practice, we use the sample of 333 'certain' municipalities, where we can confidently assign each candidate their correct birthplace, as our primary sample. As a robustness exercise in Figure A.3, we include the remaining 343 municipalities: for those, we follow Marschke et al. (2018) and rely on Ethnea (Torvik and Agarwal 2016), assigning each politician a nationality based on their first and last names. To reduce false positives, we classify a candidate as Romanian only when the joint probability that both the name and surname are Romanian exceeds 85%. The limitation of Ethnea is that while it can reliably identify

3.2 Organ Donation Consent Registry

We use data from the Italian Organ Donors Association (AIDO) covering the period 2003–2018, which includes information on the number, municipality of residence, and place of birth of individuals who consented to donate their organs after death. Although we do not observe the citizenship status of the individuals consenting, we proxy for their country of origin using their place of birth. In Italy, approximately 10 million people have consented to organ donation; according to the Italian Ministry of Health, 8.5 million of them have indicated their consent during the issuance of their ID card, and the remaining 1.5 million consented through AIDO. Natives are asked for their consent to donations when they obtain their Italian ID card (compulsory after turning 18), but non-Italian EU residents can continue using ID cards issued by their country of origin.[10]

3.3 Local Public Finance

The data on local public finance come from the Italian Public Authority Data (AIDA PA). We observe yearly municipal revenue divided by source (for example, tax type or transfer from the provincial government) and spending by municipal governments divided by type of use. We construct revenue shares and expenditure shares for categories of interest by respectively dividing the revenue and expenditure in each category by the total revenue and the total expenditure in the given municipality to make these numbers comparable across different municipalities.

3.4 Migration and Sectoral Employment

For our supplementary IV analysis, we merge Italian sectoral employment data with data on migration from the OECD. First, we combine sectoral employment data at the munic-

Romanian candidates, it cannot distinguish Albanian or Moroccan candidates (typically classifying them as Slav and Arabic, respectively).

[10]The same applies to non-EU nationals residing in Italy as long as they obtain a residence permit.

ipality level with nationwide data on foreign employment by sector provided by ISTAT to estimate the share of foreign employment in each municipality. Both datasets are from the 2001 census, the last census before Romania's accession to the EU. The sectoral data provide employment information for seventeen sectors. Next, we are interested in how many Romanians left Romania for destinations other than Italy every year. The OECD migration database provides yearly data on outflows of Romanians to OECD destinations. However, the data are not collected consistently for every destination country. The outflow variable is available for the entire observation period in our IV analysis (2003–2018) for nineteen of the destination countries in the OECD dataset.[11]

4 Empirical Strategy

4.1 Effect of Romania's Accession to the EU in 2007

Following Romania's accession to the EU in January 2007, Romanian nationals residing in Italy gained the right to vote and run in Italian municipal elections, as well as the right to stay in the country without a residence permit or a visa. We conduct an event study around 2007 to study the effects of this expansion of rights on political representation, prosocial behavior, the political orientation of the winning party, and local public finance. Our main specification is the following:

$$Y_{mt} = \alpha + \big[\sum_{s=1986}^{2020} \gamma_s Immig_m^{2003} \times \mathbb{1}_t\{t = s\}\big] + \eta_m + \theta_t + \varepsilon_{mt}. \tag{1}$$

In this equation, Y_{mt} is the outcome variable for municipality m in year t and $Immig_m^{2003}$ is the share of immigrants from a given origin country in municipality m in 2003, the first year for which we have the count of immigrants from each origin country at the municipality level. We

[11]These nineteen destination countries are Australia, Austria, the Czech Republic, Denmark, Finland, Germany, Hungary, Iceland, South Korea, Luxembourg, the Netherlands, New Zealand, Norway, the Slovak Republic, Slovenia, Spain, Sweden, Switzerland, and Turkey.

fix the share of immigrants at its 2003 level as our time-invariant measure. We argue that the 2003 share of Romanian immigrants is exogenous with respect to the event because the official conclusion of accession negotiations with Romania was confirmed by the European Council on December 17, 2004. In other words, Romanian residents living in Italian municipalities in 2003 could not have anticipated with certainty that they would benefit from the subsequent expansion of rights. Finally, η_m represents municipality fixed effects and θ_t denotes year fixed effects. The standard errors are clustered at the municipality level to account for the correlations in the error term among observations in the same municipality.

We estimate equation (1) for Romanians as our main result, but we also estimate the specification for Albanians and Moroccans, the largest immigrant groups after Romanians throughout the observation period, for comparison. This placebo analysis aims to assess whether the observed changes reflect broader trends related to immigrants in general or are specifically driven by the expansion of rights to Romanian nationals. As Albanian and Moroccan immigrants do not acquire additional rights in Italy, we use them as our comparison group to separate out the general trend relating to immigrants.

Although immigrants from other EU states could also constitute a helpful comparison group in theory since they have had the right to vote since 1996, it is difficult to compare our findings on Romanians with immigrants from other EU states for two reasons. First, in most of our analyses, we proxy for the number of immigrants using information on a resident's place of birth, not nationality, due to data limitation. However, many residents born in wealthier Western EU states, such as Germany or France, have Italian names, indicating that they are likely to be Italians born abroad rather than foreign immigrants. This makes it difficult to conduct an analysis for the population that is relevant to our research, since these foreign-born Italians have always had voting rights due to their Italian citizenship. Second, the number of residents born in Germany or France, which are the two most prominent places of birth among EU countries after Romania, is much lower than the number born in Romania. In contrast, the number of residents born in Albania and the number born in Morocco are more comparable to the size of the Romanian-born population.

Similarly, we focus on Romania rather than on other Eastern European countries admitted to the EU in the previous enlargement wave (2004) for two main reasons. First, we only observe the number of migrants by nationality in Italian municipalities starting from 2003, preventing us from observing a pre-period for countries admitted in 2004. Second, the migration to Italy from these other countries is an order of magnitude smaller than the one from Romania. For instance, there are ten times more Romanians than Poles living in Italy, despite Poland being the largest country of origin among those admitted to the EU in 2004.

4.2 Effect of Expanding Immigrant Rights vs. New Arrivals

The event-study specification boils down to a difference-in-differences specification in which we compare the pre- and post-2007 outcomes for municipalities that had many Romanian residents with those that did not in 2003. The event guarantees that Romanian immigrants in Italy could only vote and reside without permit after 2007.

However, this approach does not allow us to distinguish between two key effects: the impact of the rights expansion on Romanians who were already residing in Italy before 2007, and the effects driven by the influx of new Romanian migrants who arrived after 2007 and whose choice of migration destination positively correlates with the location of pre-existing Romanians. It is important to explicitly distinguish which subset of Romanian immigrants contributed to the increase in Romanian political representation and integrations for two main reasons. First, clarifying whether the effect on representation stems from the expansion of rights for pre-existing migrants without voting rights or from the post-2007 arrival of an increased number of Romanian migrants has important and distinct policy implications. Second, new Romanian immigrants may have selectively migrated to municipalities with a pre-existing Romanian population for reasons correlated with the outcome variable, such as the presence of a Romanian-born politician, which may generate identification concerns. We address both concerns by employing the following instrumented difference-in-differences specification:

$$\begin{aligned} Y_{mt} = \beta_0 + \beta^E Early_{mt} + \gamma^E Early_{mt} \times Post2007_t \\ + \gamma^N \widehat{New_{mt}} + \eta_m + \theta_t + \nu_{mt}. \end{aligned} \tag{2}$$

Here, $Early_{mt}$ denotes the share of pre-existing Romanians and New_{mt} the share of Romanians that arrived in municipality m in year t, after the accession. $Early_{mt}$ evolves over time until 2007 and then it is fixed at the 2007 level. In an alternative specification, we use the share of Romanian immigrants in municipality m in 2003 a an exogenous proxy for $Early_{mt}$.

New_{mt} presents the endogeneity problem described above. To address this issue, we find an instrument for the share of Romanian immigrants that captures the new arrivals of Romanian immigrants in a given municipality, but is uncorrelated with the outcome variables otherwise. More precisely, we instrument for New_{mt}, with the following expression:

$$Z_{mt} = \big(\sum_{sector} EmpShare^{2001}_{m,sector} \times ForeignEmp^{2001}_{sector} \big) \times Outflow_t. \tag{3}$$

In this equation, $EmpShare^{2001}_{m,sector}$ is the employment share of a given *sector* in municipality m in 2001 and $ForeignEmp^{2001}_{sector}$ is the number of foreign workers employed in *sector* in year 2000 as a fraction of total workers in the *sector* nationwide. Our data provide the municipal level employment share for seventeen sectors in 2001. The total outflow of Romanian migrants to destinations other than Italy from 2007 to year t is denoted by $Outflow_t$. The idea is to first weight the sectoral employment share in each municipality by how likely each sector's job openings are to be filled by foreign workers. Then, this figure is multiplied by the yearly outflow of Romanians to estimate the amount of foreign employment that is likely to be taken up by Romanians.

The key idea is that in each municipality, there is a demand for labor in certain sectors that is more likely to be satisfied by foreign workers than by natives. If foreign labor from one origin country works as a substitute for the labor of another, Romanians fill these posts proportionately, where the proportion is approximated by the outflow of Romanians to various destinations other than Italy. However, we only include sectors for which Romanians could work without a work permit during the adjustment period 2007–2011. This is in order to discount sectors such as manufacturing or wholesale and retail trade that are large employers of foreign residents but are irrelevant to new arrivals after Romania's accession. In fact, Romanians who arrived after the accession were much more likely to be employed in the sectors that had work permit exemption for Romanians.[12] [13]

4.2.1 Identification Assumptions

Our identification relies on two main assumptions. First, sectoral employment in 2001 is predetermined and exogenous. It cannot be affected by the Romanian inflow, which mainly occurs years after 2001. Moreover, we do not see a reason to suspect that having a greater share of industries that are more likely to hire foreign employees will affect the likelihood of electing a Romanian-born councilor in any other way than through the change in Romanian share in the given municipality. Second, the outflow of Romanians in a given year to a destination other than Italy is determined by the conditions in Romania, such as the country's economic or political circumstances, and not by the conditions in Italy. A remaining threat to identification is that the sectoral composition of a labor market could determine other political outcomes. However, we only employ this IV approach when our dependent variable is whether the given municipality has Romanian-born councilor. We believe that sectoral employment can only affect this specific outcome by determining the share of Romanians in the municipality. Thus, the exclusion restriction is not violated.

[12]See Section 2.

[13]The included sectors are Agriculture, Hunting, and Forestry; Fishing, Pisciculture, and Related Services; Construction; Hotels and Restaurants; Financial Intermediaries; Real Estate, Informatics, Research, Other Professional and Entrepreneurial Activities; Public Administration and Defense; Education; Healthcare and Other Social Services; Domestic Services for Families; and International Organization. Those omitted are Mining and Quarrying; Manufacturing; Energy Utilities; Wholesale and Retail Trade, Repair of Motor Vehicles and Household Goods; Transportation and Distribution; and Other Public Social Services.

5 Findings

5.1 Romanian Political Representation

5.1.1 Romanian-Born Councilors

Figure 7 presents the event-study estimation of equation (1) on whether the likelihood of electing a Romanian-born councilor increased after Romania's accession to the EU in 2007. Our outcome variable is a binary variable indicating whether the municipality has a Romanian-born councilor, instead of a continuous variable indicating the total number of Romanian-born councilors, because it is very rare for a municipality to have more than one. We see an insignificant and flat pre-trend before 2007. We display the 1986–2002 period despite fixing the immigrant share at the 2003 level to show that migrants did not select into municipalities that already had Romanian councilors.

The point estimate for the likelihood of having a Romanian-born councilor in municipalities with a larger time-invariant share of Romanians starts to increase in 2009. The increase begins in 2009, rather than 2008, due to the asynchronous cycles of municipal elections. Figure 6 shows that only a few elections occurred in 2008 and the majority of municipalities had elections in 2009. Moreover, the bureaucratic steps for Romanians to be fully registered and eligible to vote and run in elections, such as registering and gathering necessary documents from the home country, were often delayed. The process was particularly slow in the early years, when it was still new and the offices were overcrowded.[14]

We conduct additional analyses to strengthen our findings. Figure 8 presents an alternative specification in which we add Bulgarian citizens and representatives to the corresponding number of Romanians, accounting for the fact that Bulgaria also joined the EU in 2007. Our findings remain unaffected. Next, we show that our finding holds even after controlling for the presence of other large immigrant groups. We extend equation (1) to include the fixed

[14] In particular, while Romanians theoretically had the right to vote since April 2007, newspaper articles (Melting Pot Europa 2007) report that registration procedures were immediately suspended due to crowding out and the municipal authorities' lack of procedural know-how. This issue likely affected 2008 as well.

share of Albanians and Moroccans as well as these fixed shares interacted with year dummies. We plot the result in Figure 9 and confirm that the increase in the likelihood of having a Romanian-born councilor persists.

We perform placebo analyses using two comparison groups: Albanians and Moroccans. The outcome variable in these analyses is the presence of an Albanian-born or Moroccan-born councilor, respectively. To prevent potential confounding effects from the presence of these other large immigrant communities, we control for the fixed shares of the remaining two immigrant groups and these shares interacted with the year dummies. The results are shown in Figure 10 and Figure 11. We do not observe an increase around the time of Romania's accession in the likelihood of having an Albanian-born councilor in Figure 10 or a Moroccan-born councilor in Figure 11. We conclude that no event around 2007 other than Romania's accession increased the likelihood of having a Romanian-born councilor. That is, we rule out the possibility that the effect we observe is due to a confounding event that occurred in 2007 and increased the likelihood of electing a foreign-born councilor.

Starting from 2019 and 2020, our placebo analyses for Albanians and Moroccans show statistically significant coefficients, even though much lower in magnitude than the ones for Romanians. We explain this trend in two ways. First, voters in municipalities with more immigrants may have became progressively more open to the idea of having a foreign-born councilor due to persistent exposure. Second, and most importantly, Albanian and Moroccan immigrants progressively gained Italian citizenship at higher rates than Romanians, which granted them the right to vote and run for office. This was a comparable, and even stronger, expansion of rights than gaining a EU citizenship. Figure 12 shows the annual naturalization counts (in thousands) of those whose origin country is Romania, Albania, or Morocco. We observe that the naturalization count is much larger for Albanians and Moroccans than for Romanians, most likely due to the timing of immigration of the different groups combined with the long residency requirements to apply for Italian citizenship. Indeed, Albanians and Moroccans began to immigrate to Italy in large numbers before Romanians. For instance, many Albanians migrated in the 1990s, following the fall of the Albanian communist regime.

Finally, Figure 13 aggregates the observations to the electoral-cycle level and presents an event study in which the outcome is the likelihood of having a Romanian, Albanian, or Moroccan councilor, respectively. Serving as a summary of the preceding analyses, this exercise qualitatively confirms our earlier findings, with Romanians standing out as the one group whose representation surged immediately after 2007.

In an additional analysis, Table 4 pools the years into two periods—pre- and post-2007—to get an average estimate of the effect of enfranchisement on political representation. The dependent variable in the first three columns is an indicator equal to one if a given municipality has a Romanian-born councilor in a given year. The following six columns show a analogous results for having an Albanian or a Moroccan-born councilor. Our independent variable of interest is the immigrant share of a given community interacted with the post-2007 indicator. Columns (1), (4), and (7) include province and year fixed effects, columns (2), (5), and (8) instead control for province-by-year fixed effects, and columns (3), (6), and (9) include municipality and year fixed effects. Standard errors are clustered by municipality.

Table 4 shows a significant increase in the likelihoods of having a Romanian-born councilor after 2007, as well as that for Albanian-born and Moroccan-born councilors. However, the magnitude for Romanians is double that for Albanians and almost five times that for Moroccans. A municipality with one more percentage point in the Romanian share in 2003 increases its likelihood of electing a Romanian-born councilor by 0.497 percentage point. In contrast, having one more percentage point in the Albanian or Moroccan share in 2003 increases the likelihood of an Albanian-born or Moroccan-born councilor by only 0.237 and 0.096 percentage points, respectively. Once again, we attribute the positive and significant, though small, coefficients for Albanians and Moroccans to their high naturalization rates, which led to the enfranchisement of these immigrants, who generally arrived in Italy earlier than Romanians.

5.1.2 Mechanisms

In this subsection, we study the mechanisms behind the increase in the likelihood of having a Romanian-born councilor. Several channels could explain it. At one extreme, granting eligibility to run in local elections could lead to a sharp increase in the supply of Romanian politicians. In this case, even with a relatively stable success rate, more and more Romanian-born candidates could secure office. At the other extreme, as Romanian immigrants gain the right to vote, even a fixed number of Romanian-born candidates may become more successful, due to a more favorable electorate.

Supply of Romanian Candidates We begin by examining the effect of EU enlargement on the supply of Romanian candidates. Unfortunately, administrative data on municipal candidates who were not elected do not exist in Italy. Municipalities sometimes maintain their own records of previous elections, often as hard copies of candidate rosters. As a result, we rely on original, manually collected data of candidates in Italian municipal elections.

Figure 14a presents the event-study estimation of equation (1), using the number of Romanian candidates as our outcome. The figure shows that the number of Romanian candidates increased over time. We observe a strikingly similar pattern for Albanians, while the number of Moroccan-born candidates remains constant. This pattern is even more stark if we restrict the analysis in Figure 13 to the subsample of 333 municipalities for which we have the information on the name and birthplace of municipal candidates (as done in Figure 14b). Comparing Figure 14a and Figure 14b, which use the same subsample, we clearly see that the increase in Romanian candidates is comparable to the increase in the number of Albanian-born candidates, but the number of elected Romanian-born councilors increases much more than the number of councilors from any other comparison group. These results suggest that the increase in the number of elected councilors, much larger for Romanians than for Albanians, is not solely driven by the supply of candidates.

While the supply of Albanian candidates closely resembles that of Romanian candidates, no comparable increase is observed for Moroccan candidates. This could be due to a couple of different reasons. First, Morocco is often considered a weak democracy (Maghraoui 2002), continuously scoring lower than both Romania and Albania on the Democracy Index reported by the Economist Intelligence Unit.[15] This may suggest a lower tradition of electoral participation thus explaining the low candidacy rates. Second, voter bias against candidates from a different religious background may have limited the representation of Moroccan candidates. While both Albania and Morocco have significant Muslim populations, Muslims only account for about half of the Albanian population. Moreover, Albania has largely embraced secularism, especially after decades of communism (Vickers 2011; Tokrri et al. 2021; Abazi 2022), whereas Morocco's official religion is Islam.[16]

Competitive Elections Second, we examine whether the likelihood of electing a Romanian-born councilor increases in a competitive election setting. Elections can be competitive as a result of a shift in the composition of candidates. For instance, including a minority candidate could mobilize both minority constituents in support and natives who turn out to prevent the candidate from being elected. Thus, we look at whether municipalities that were *expecting* a competitive election are more likely to have a Romanian-born councilor. The following specification is intended to answer this question:

$$
\begin{aligned}
Rep_{mc} = a_0 + a_1 Competitive_{mc} + \sum_{s=3,4,5} \left[b_s Cycle_s \times Competitive_{mc} \right] \\
+ \sum_{o \in \mathbb{O}} \Big\{ c^o Share^{o,2003} \times Competitive_{mc} + \sum_{s=3,4,5} \left[d_s^o Share^o \times Cycle_s \right] \\
+ \sum_{s=3,4,5} \left[e_s^o Share^{o,2003} \times Cycle_s \times Competitive_{mc} \right] \Big\} \\
+ \eta_m + \theta_t + \tilde{\varepsilon}_{mc}.
\end{aligned}
\tag{4}
$$

[15]The first Democracy Index was reported in 2006 and the index for each country of interest can be seen in Figure A.4. The countries with most similar index values to Morocco during the observation period are Pakistan and Sierra Leone.

[16]Madrid et al. (2022) find evidence that voters evaluate candidates from religious out-groups more negatively; and Colussi et al. (2021) finds that the salience of Muslim minorities indicates an increase in negative attitudes toward Muslims.

Here, Rep_{mc} is an indicator variable equal to 1 if municipality m in electoral cycle c has a councilor born in a given origin country. Considering Romania's accession in 2007 and the 5-year electoral cycle in municipal elections, we define the cycles around 2007 to include 5 years of observation. The variable $Competitive_{mc}$ is an indicator variable equal to 1 if municipality m had a competitive election in cycle $c-1$. We define a competitive election as an election in which the difference in the vote shares of the party that received the most votes and the one that came in second is less than 5 percentage points. The origin countries considered in this specification are again $\mathbb{O}$ ={Romania, Albania, Morocco}. We include municipality and cycle fixed effects, which are denoted respectively as η_m and θ_c.

We hypothesize that if political parties anticipate a tight election, they are more likely to include minority candidates in their list of councilor candidates to gain votes from enfranchised minority constituents, especially in municipalities where minority communities are large. The coefficient e_s^o for the triple interaction term $Share^{o,2003} \times Cycle_s \times Competitive_{mc}$ for each cycle is shown in Figure 15. We see a significant increase in the likelihood of having a Romanian-born councilor in municipalities that were expecting competitive elections in electoral cycles 2013-2017 and 2018-2020 as the share of Romanians in the given municipality increases. The coefficient is not significant in the 2008-2012 electoral cycle, which was the first cycle after Romanians gained the right to vote and stand for municipal elections. This could be because it takes time for parties to learn about the effectiveness of having a Romanian-born candidate on their slate. We do not find any effect in our placebo specifications in which the dependent variable is the likelihood of having an Albanian-born or Moroccan-born councilor. Table 6 shows the corresponding coefficient estimates and confirms a positive and significant triple-interaction term for Romanians, and virtually no effect for the other groups.

Romanian votes To ensure that it was plausible for parties to consider including a minority candidate, we analyze whether the newly enfranchised Romanians registered to vote.

Although voter registration is not required for Italian citizens to vote, it is required for residents with citizenship from another EU member state voting for the first time. Unfortunately, we do not observe the number of Romanians who are registered to vote in each municipality until 2011. To circumvent this issue, we exploit the fact that only Italian citizens can vote in the regional elections and focus on the dates on which the regional elections took place simultaneously with municipal elections. We estimate the following regression:

$$DifVoters_{mt} = b_0 + \big[\sum_s b_s Immig_m^{2003} \times \mathbb{1}_t\{t = s\}\big] + \eta_m + \theta_t + e_{mt}. \tag{5}$$

The dependent variable $DifVoters_{mt}$ is the difference in the level of registered voters as a percentage of the municipality population between municipal and regional elections. We divide the level difference by the population because more populous municipalities will mechanically show a larger difference otherwise. The years in which we observe the municipality election taking place on the same day as the regional election for some municipalities are 2000, 2005, 2010, 2015, and 2020.[17] Municipality and year fixed effects are included.

The coefficients b_s and their corresponding confidence intervals at the 95 percent are plotted in Figure 16. We observe a significant and large difference between the number of voters registered for municipal elections and that for regional elections as a share of the municipal population in 2010, 2015 and 2020 in municipalities with a higher share of Romanians. The estimates for the placebo groups, Albanians and Moroccans, are close to zero and insignificant. Since the difference between the number of registered voters for municipal and regional elections increased, the number of municipal constituents of these places must have increased. The fact that the gap increased precisely in municipalities with more Romanians and precisely after their enfranchisement, together with the fact that we see no parallel effect in places with more Albanians or Moroccans, makes it clear that enfranchisement and consequential registration to vote of Romanians explains this increased

[17]The exact dates are April 26, 2000; April 3, 2005; March 28, 2010; May 31, 2015; and September 20, 2020. We dropped the two municipalities whose municipal and regional elections were simultaneously held in 2013, 2014, 2019 because of the small number and unstable sample.

gap. This is consistent with the conjecture that political parties consider running Romanian candidates to earn the votes of registered Romanian voters.

Figure 17 also plots coefficients b_s, but the dependent variable is now the difference between the number of actual voters in municipal elections and that in regional elections. If more Romanians turn up in municipal elections, the estimates should be significant and positive. Once again, we see a positive and significant increase in the discrepancy in actual votes between municipal and regional elections, exactly in municipalities with more (enfranchised) Romanian citizens, but not in municipalities with a larger share of other groups of non-enfranchised migrants. This indicates that not only Romanians registered, but they also turned out to vote.

The precise interpretation of the coefficient is not straightforward, the caveat being that the independent variables are based on the fixed share of the Romanian population in 2003. At face value, the coefficient suggests that a 1 percentage point increase in the number of Romanians as a share of the municipal population in 2003 increased municipal registration by 0.5 percentage points. Similarly, a 1 percentage point increase in the number of Romanians as a share of the municipal population in 2003 increased turnout by .5 percentage points. However, in practice, a 1 percentage point increase in the share of Romanians in 2003 likely leads to a much larger impact in the following years, when we measure the electoral returns. Therefore, the actual estimates are likely smaller than what is suggested by the initial interpretation.[18]

Finally, we analyze the partisan affiliation of elected Romanian-born councilors. The

[18] A regression of share of Romanians in 2003 on share of Romanians in 2015, suggests that a 1 pp increase in the former leads to about 2.1 pp increase in in the latter (results are similar for 2010 and 2020). This would imply a registration and turnout rate of around 23% (namely 0.5/2.1). Indeed, in 2015 we know about 80 thousand Romanians were registered to vote. While we do not have statistics on the share of Romanians with right to vote in Italy (i.e. those above 18 who did not lose voting rights in Romania), this number would likely account for about 10-15% of the potential voters. The discrepancy may be partly reconciled by looking at the survey of Romanians in large Italian cities of Table 1, which indicates indeed a 24% registration rate among pre-existing Romanian migrants but only a 5% rate among new arrivals. This would suggest that new arrived migrants have a close to zero registration rate and we should thus take the estimate more literally, that is, that a 1pp increase in 2003 share of Romanians leads to an up to 50% registration rate, *among early mover Romanians.*

political orientation of these councilors is illustrated in Table 5. We do not see a statistical difference between Romanian-born and non-Romanian-born councilors in terms of ideological affiliation. However, we do see that the Romanian-born councilors are significantly more likely to belong to the winning party than the non-Romanian-born councilors. We then split the sample of councilors into pre- and post-2014 elections. We find that Romanian councilors were significantly less likely to belong to the winning party before 2014. This suggests that over time Romanian-born candidates were included in the parties with more support from the municipal population, namely incumbents or close opponents. Alternatively, it could indicate that having a Romanian-born candidate helped these parties win.

5.1.3 Enfranchisement of Pre-existing Immigrants vs. New Arrivals

In this subsection, we disentangle whether the increase in the likelihood of having a Romanian-born councilor is driven by the enfranchisement of the pre-existing population or by the arrivals of newly enfranchised Romanians. To do so, we use an IV approach and instrument for New_{mt} in equation (2) with the expression in equation (3). The first stage results are presented in Table 7. The instrument strongly predicts the share of new Romanians at the municipality-by-year level, thus satisfying the relevance condition. In column (1), we use the time-invariant Romanian share at the 2003 level for $Early_{mt}$, whereas in column (2), we let $Early_{mt}$ equal to the current Romanian share in year t up to 2007 and fix the share at the 2007 share from 2008 onward. The former specification is more similar to our specification when looking at Romanian representation, the latter more precisely matches the number of pre-existing Romanians over time. In both specifications, the relevance of the instrument is strong. The coefficient for New_{mt} is positive and statistically significant. Further, the Kleibergen-Paap F-statistic ranges from 42.70 to 47.74 and shows that we do not suffer from a weak instrument problem.

Table 8 presents a comparison of the OLS and 2SLS specifications of equation (2). The first two columns present the results from the OLS specification. Columns (3) and (4) are the 2SLS results that correspond to columns (1) and (2) from the first stage specifications in Table 7. In both columns (1) and (2) the OLS estimates are significant for both the pre-existing share of Romanians and the new Romanian arrivals. However, once we instrument for the inflow of new arrivals, the 2SLS estimates for new arrivals are no longer significant, and if anything, their point estimates are negative. On the other hand, the effect for the pre-existing share remains significant and positive. This means the IV specification corrected for a downward bias for the effect of pre-existing Romanian share and an upward bias for the effect of Romanian share of new arrivals in the OLS specification. In the preferred specification in column (3), the estimate states that a municipality with 1 more percentage point of pre-existing Romanian population increases its likelihood of electing a Romanian-born councilor by 0.472 percentage points. We conclude that the effect of enfranchisement on Romanian-born political representation is mainly driven by Romanians who were already living in Italy prior to the accession.

Based on the survey data on Romanian migrants in Italy from WIIW (2012) weighted for national representation, we find that 23.89% of Romanian migrants who arrived in Italy during the years 2004-2006 were registered to vote, whereas only 5.36% of Romanian migrants that arrived between 2007 and 2010 had registered to vote.[19] This comparison of voter registration rate between pre-existing and newly arrived Romanians corroborates our finding. Overall, our findings suggest that enfranchisement of pre-existing Romanian population is what caused Romanian-born political representation to increase.

5.2 Prosocial Behavior

Proponents of expanding immigrant rights argue that extending the franchise to resident immigrants and ensuring a more secure residency status would increase civic participation and benefit the entire community. However, the literature has very little evidence on this topic. We test whether prosocial behavior—inherently important, but which we also take

[19]The unweighted percentages of registered to vote are 23.48% and 5.32% respectively.

more generally as a proxy for social capital—increases when Romanian immigrants obtain EU citizenship.[20] Following the literature, we use data on organ-donation-consent (from AIDO) to gauge the level of prosocial attitude and social capital.[21] The AIDO dataset contains information on those who have registered to be potential organ donors. Most importantly, it allows us to observe where the individuals are born and in which municipality they resided at the time of registration.

We make minor modifications to the specification from equation (1) to study the level of prosocial behavior so we can incorporate the individual-level data we have on registration as potential organ donors.

$$DonorConsent_{mt} = \mu_0 + \mu_1 ImmigCount_{mt} + \Big[\sum_{s=2003}^{2018} \pi_s \mathbb{1}_t\{t = s\} \Big] + \eta_m + \nu_{mt} \tag{6}$$

The outcome variable is the number of immigrants from a given country (Romania, Albania, Morocco) that registered as organ donors in municipality m in year t. We then control for the time-variant municipal count of Romanians (Albanians, Moroccans), to rule out the possibility that the number of donors increases mechanically simply because of an increase in the total number of Romanians (Albanians, Moroccans) after 2007. We thus look at the coefficients of the year dummies to see whether the number of consents increased after 2007.

The event-study analysis is presented in Figure 18. We find a significant increase in the number of Romanian immigrants registering as potential organ donors even after controlling for the total number of Romanian immigrants in each municipality, suggesting the increase is not due to a mechanical effect. On the contrary, we do not observe a significant increase in the number of immigrants from either Albania or Morocco who registered as potential organ donors around 2007. Hence, we believe the increase in organ donation consent is specific to Romanian-born residents and not a general trend among immigrants.

[20] According to the Oxford English Dictionary, social capital refers to *the interpersonal networks and common civic values which influence the infrastructure and economy of a particular society; the nature, extent, or value of these.*

[21] Putnam (2000) and Guiso et al. (2004) use blood donation and Bartscher et al. (2021) use blood and organ donation along with other measures to capture social capital.

To the best of our knowledge, no specific campaign on organ donation was enacted in Romania or targeted Romanians specifically in 2007. One possible identification concern is that Albanians and Moroccans have a large share of Muslim population, unlike the Romanian population. If Muslims are less likely to donate than Orthodox Christians, and if a confounding factor led donations to increase precisely in 2007, this could explain the different trends we observe. To rule this out, we conduct an additional analysis for the largest groups of immigrants to Italy from eastern European countries that have a large share of Orthodox Christians, but did not join the EU, namely Russians and Ukrainians. To improve the precision of our estimates in comparing registration rates among immigrants from predominantly Orthodox countries based on EU citizenship status, we include Bulgarians, who gained EU citizenship in the same year as Romanians, in the treated group. The results, shown in Figure 19, show once again that the effect on donation is specific to groups who obtain the EU Citizenship.

Figure 18 also shows the lack of any increase in consent for donations following 2002–2003, when the largest legalization program of undocumented migrants in Italian history was enacted and almost 700 thousand undocumented migrants, mostly Romanians, Albanians and Moroccans, were legalized. This suggests that the increase in the organ donation registration rate among Romanians in 2007 is not driven by undocumented migrants gaining legal status and that the extension of voting rights may have played a very important role.

One potential concern is that controlling for the number of immigrants by group may not be sufficient. The appropriate outcome variable might instead be the share of each immigrant group that consents to organ donation, rather than the total number. However, using the share as an outcome variable could also be problematic for the same reason. That is, a large influx of Romanians after 2007 would mechanically lower the share of Romanians who are donors, as newly arrived immigrants may need time to consider and understand how to register as donors. Figure 20 shows results using the share rather than the number as an outcome. The figure reveals both effects. We observe a sharp drop in the share of Romanians giving consent immediately after 2007, consistent with the sharp immigrant inflow raising the denominator. However, shortly thereafter, we see a sharp increase in the share of Romanian donors, even as the denominator continues to rise. In contrast, we do not observe similar trends among Albanians and Moroccans.

Finally, we conduct our usual IV analysis to understand if new arrivals or pre-existing immigrants drive our findings. The results of this exercise are reported in Table 9 and Table 10 respectively, using the total number of donors and the share of donors among the immigrant population as the outcome variable. As expected, results are entirely driven by Romanians who were in Italy before 2007, while new arrivals enter with a negative sign, confirming that consent to organ donation is not a likely priority for new migrants in a foreign county, but can be boosted by increasing rights to migrants who lived there, with limited rights, for a long period.

5.3 Winning Party

Barone et al. (2016) find that an increase in the share of immigrants increased the likelihood of electing a right-wing mayor in Italian municipalities. Most right-leaning parties in Italy have maintained an anti-immigration stance at the national level during our observation period. Right-leaning parties that are not strictly considered anti-immigrant have been in coalitions with a right-wing party that had a strong anti-immigrant stance. In this subsection, we investigate whether enfranchising the largest immigrant community balances out the increase in support for a right-wing mayoral candidate documented by Barone et al. (2016). We analyze the ideology of the winning party in municipal elections around the 2007 accession, using Equation 1. As mentioned in Section 2.3, the mayor, vice mayor, and councilors are chosen in municipal elections. Candidates can be elected as councilor in opposition parties, but the majority of the councilors and the mayor come from the winning party or coalition. Thus, investigating the winning party tells us how the municipality voted in general and who gained control over the steering wheel of the municipal government.

We categorize the parties into five different types: right-leaning, centrist, left-leaning, civic, and Five Star Movement. To classify the parties into these five categories, we analyze the name of the party and confirm using the party's Wikipedia page. We classify a party as left-leaning when (1) the term *Left (Sinistra)* appears in the name, (2) the party participates in a coalition with a party that has been traditionally categorized as left-leaning, such as the Democratic Party (Partito Democratico), or (3) the party is categorized as left-leaning by Wikipedia. Similarly, we classify a party as right-leaning when (1) the term *Right (Destra)* appears in the name, (2) the party participates in a coalition with a party that has been traditionally categorized as right-leaning, such as Forza Italia or National Alliance (Alleanza Nazionale), or (3) the party is categorized as right-leaning by Wikipedia. The center parties are those that are not in a coalition with any parties classified as left- or right-leaning and contain the term *Center (Centro)*, such as the Union of the Center (Unione di Centro). Finally, a party is considered civic if it is not in a coalition with any party classified as left- or right-leaning and contains either the word *Civic (Civico)* or *Independent (Indipendente)*.

Figure 21 shows that the likelihood of a right-leaning party winning in municipal elections increases over time in municipalities that are home to more immigrants from any of the three largest immigrant communities—Romanian, Albanian, or Moroccan. Since the pattern is very similar across all three groups, even though Romanians gain voting rights and the other two groups do not, this suggests that enfranchisement of Romanians in itself did not cause the ideology of the winning party to change. Instead, the presence of any immigrant community, whether it had the franchise or not, played a greater role. We observe a slight decrease in the likelihood of civic parties winning for a few years after 2007, but the likelihood returns to its previous level soon after. We do not observe any significant and consistent patterns for the other types of parties.

5.4 Local Public Finance

Research studying women's suffrage and the U.S. Voting Rights Act has found a significant change in public finance after franchise was extended to a new subset of the population.[22] We examine whether there are any distinct patterns in local public finance for municipalities with more Romanians after their right expanded. First, we look at the evolution of the property tax and waste tax as shares of total revenue for each municipality to see whether the tax burden on homeowners changes.[23] Figure 23 shows an increase in the property tax and a decrease in the waste tax over time in municipalities with more Romanians compared to those with fewer. However, we do not see any statistical difference between municipalities with more Romanians in comparison to those with more Albanians or Moroccans. Consequently, we conclude that the local tax-revenue composition is unaffected by extending voting rights to Romanian immigrants.

We then investigate the breakdown of expenditure. In Figure 23, we present an event-study analysis of the expenditure shares of five main categories of local expenditure: education, public housing, public security, social programs, and transportation. Once again, we do not observe a statistical difference between municipalities with more Romanians in comparison to those with more Albanians or Moroccans. We find that in municipalities with a large presence of at least one of the three immigrant communities, the expenditure share on public security increases over time and the expenditure share on social programs decreases. This finding is consistent with our finding of an increase in the likelihood of a right-leaning party or coalition winning the municipal election when there is a large presence of any of the three largest immigrant communities.

[22]See Lott and Kenny (1999), Abrams and Settle (1999), Washington (2008), Aidt and Dallal (2008), Funk and Gathmann (2015), Cascio and Shenhav (2020), and Kose et al. (2020) for how women's suffrage led to a change in budget allocation. See Cascio and Washington (2014) for how the U.S. Voting Rights Act influenced government transfers.

[23]In 2016, 20 percent of foreigners owned a house compared to 77 percent of Italians.

6 Discussion

Romania's accession to the European Union is, to our knowledge, the only shock that occurred in 2007 that specifically and differentially affected Romanian (and Bulgarian) migrants living in Italy. We are thus confident that our identification strategies correctly capture this event. However, the event inherently involves several simultaneous changes that are challenging to disentangle. These changes include the enfranchisement of Romanians for municipal elections, more secure and easily obtained residency status, free movement of labor, and legalization of Romanian immigrants. The expansion of these rights led to an increase in the number of Romanians migrating to Italy. In this section, we discuss how we address and disentangle the multiple confounding events in our analyses.

The legalization of Romanian immigrants is one potential channel that could affect our results. However, 2007 was not the first wave of legalization of Romanian migrants. As discussed above, Italy legalized a large share of its undocumented migrant population in 2003, accounting for nearly 700,000 individuals, predominantly Romanians, Albanians, and Moroccans. The very fact that none of our results show any evidence of a jump in 2003, especially in Figure 13 and Figure 18, suggests that legalization did not play a major role in fostering representation and prosocial behavior. Similarly, the fact that our results are entirely driven by the pre-existing Romanian population, while previously undocumented migrants legalized via EU citizenship would be captured in new arrivals, suggests once again that our findings are not driven by legalization.

Second, the large influx of Romanians following 2007 may raise identification concerns and complicate the interpretation of the results. This is because the share of newly arrived Romanians could correlate with that of pre-existing Romanians. Our IV approach ensures that the results are driven by pre-existing Romanian migrants, rather than by the new, potentially differently selected, Romanian migrants.

Third, free movement of labor could have dramatically affected the labor market for Romanians. The gradual process of Romania's EU accession alleviates some of our concerns, since the labor market restrictions in Italy were not fully lifted for Romanians until January 1, 2012, Our effects on representation and prosocial behavior are visible beginning in 2009 at the latest. Table 2 shows significant evidence of sectoral changes only for a few areas. The largest change is the increase in the number of Romanians seeking for a job, which seems inconsistent with our results. Since a municipal councilor's role is essentially pro-bono and cannot substitute for paid employment, it is unlikely that higher unemployment explains the gains in political representation or an increase in social capital.

Finally, we are unable to fully disentangle the effects of enfranchisement from those of more secure residency rights, and, more generally, the sense of "feeling more European". When considering the outcome of municipal representation, it seems clear that enfranchisement is the most important and necessary driver. At the same time, the fact that pre-existing migrants – who already had residency rights – drive the results for both representation and prosocial behavior suggests that residency rights may play a minor role. However, we cannot rule out the possibility that the perception of having more secure residency, independent of job stability, and a stronger sense of belonging by feeling part of the EU community could still be an important factor, particularly for prosocial behavior.

7 Conclusion

We study the effect of expanding political and residency rights of immigrants, through the acquisition of EU citizenship, on political representation, prosocial behavior, the political orientation of the winning party, and local public finances. Exploiting Romania's accession to the European Union in 2007, we find that the likelihood of electing a Romanian-born councilor increases in municipalities with a larger share of Romanian immigrants. The effect is specific to Romanians, as we see no comparable effects among Albanians or Moroccans, the second and third largest immigrant communities in Italy.

To explore the underlying mechanisms, we first show that the supply of Romanian candidates increased, but not differentially more than one of our main comparison groups, Albanians. We then examine competitive elections and find that municipalities expecting a tight race are even more likely to elect a Romanian-born councilor. This suggests that political parties are more inclined to nominate minority candidates when anticipating a close contest to capture the newly enfranchised voters. Indeed, we find evidence of increased voter turnout among Romanians. Using an Instrumental Variables approach, we find that this effect is driven by the pre-existing Romanian population, rather than by newly arrived Romanians.

The impact of expanding immigrants' rights extends beyond political outcomes. Specifically, we observe an increase in prosocial behavior, proxied by consent rates for organ donation, among Romanians after their country's EU accession. The IV analysis, shows this is also driven by the Romanians who arrived before 2007.

Regarding electoral outcomes and public finance patterns, we find no significant differences between municipalities with Romanian residents and those with Albanian and Moroccan communities, our comparison groups. In all municipalities with substantial immigrant populations, a higher share of immigrants is associated with a greater likelihood of a right-leaning party victory, increased spending on public security, and reduced spending on social programs. We believe that future research should further investigate how the political preferences of newly enfranchised groups may differ from those of communities without voting rights and study effects on public spending that target more closely different ethnic communities.

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Tables

Table 1: Characteristic Comparison Between Pre-existing and Newly Arrived Romanians

Arrival in Italy:	2004-2006	2007-2010	Difference
16-24	0.1044	0.2158	0.1113***
25-34	0.3746	0.3710	-0.0037
35-44	0.3654	0.2885	-0.0768**
45+	0.1556	0.1247	-0.0309
Married	0.6058	0.4927	-0.1131***
Single	0.1438	0.2761	0.1323***
Living with Partner	0.1266	0.1171	-.0095
Divorced	0.1048	0.0903	-0.0145
Widowed	0.0191	0.0239	0.0047
Has dependent children	0.5031	0.4193	-0.0838**
Primary	0.0352	0.0694	0.0342**
Vocational	0.2651	0.2921	0.0268
Secondary	0.4611	0.4209	-0.0405
College	0.1149	0.0775	-0.0375*
Graduate Degree	0.1237	0.1401	0.0162
Less than 400 EUR	0.0202	0.0378	0.0176
401-500 EUR	0.0292	0.0359	0.0067
501-600 EUR	0.0398	0.0580	0.0182
601-700 EUR	0.0401	0.0804	0.0403**
701-800 EUR	0.0994	0.1340	0.0346
801-900 EUR	0.1152	0.0696	-0.0457*
901-1000 EUR	0.1136	0.1530	0.0394
1001-1200 EUR	0.1903	0.1916	0.0013
1201-1500 EUR	0.2205	0.1480	-0.0725**
1501-2000 EUR	0.0874	0.0604	-0.0270
Above 2000 EUR	0.0442	0.0314	-0.0128
Registered to Vote	0.2389	0.0536	-0.1853***

The table displays the characteristic comparison between Romanian migrants that arrived in Italy during 2004-2006 and those that arrived during 2007-2010, which is after Romania's accession to the EU. The statistics come from the survey on Romanian migrants in large Italian cities (Milan, Turin and Rome) before and after the EU Accession, provided by WIIW. We use the national weights given by WIIW for this table to show the nationally representative characteristics of Romanian migrants.

Table 2: Employment Share of Romanian Migrants by Sector

Arrival in Italy:	2004-2006	2007-2010	Difference
Agriculture, hunting, and forestry	0.0110	0.0144	0.0073
Construction	0.2019	0.2429	0.0410
Domestic services for families	0.1372	0.1575	0.0204
Education	0.0053	0	-0.0053
Financial intermediaries	0.0042	0	-0.0042
Healthcare and other social services	0.0476	0.0424	-0.0052
Hotels and restaurants	0.0618	0.0328	-0.0290**
Manufacturing	0.1070	0.0570	-0.0500***
Other public social services	0.0138	0.0140	0.0002
Public administration and defense	0.0004	0	-0.0004
Professional and entrepreneurial activities	0.0625	0.0453	-0.0171
Transportation and distribution	0.0373	0.0472	0.0099
Wholesale and retail trade	0.2250	0.1867	-0.0383
Staying at home or looking after children	0.0197	0.0332	0.01352
Student	0.0273	0.0410	0.0137
Looking for work	0.0102	0.0716	0.0614***
Other	0.0279	0.0141	-0.0138

The table displays the employment share of Romanian migrants by sector divided into two groups—Romanian migrants that arrived in Italy during 2004-2006 and those that arrived during 2007-2011, which is after Romania's accession to the EU. The statistics come from the survey on Romanian migrants in large Italian cities (Milan, Turin and Rome) before and after the EU Accession, provided by WIIW. We use the national weights given by WIIW for this table to show the nationally representative characteristics of Romanian migrants.

Table 3: Summary Statistics

Variable	Period	#Obs	Mean	Std. Dev.	Min	Max
Share of Romanian Population	2003	7,861	0.003	0.006	0	0.167
Share of Albanian Population	2003	7,861	0.005	0.008	0	0.126
Share of Moroccan Population	2003	7,861	0.006	0.010	0	0.148
Has Romanian Councilor	1986–2020	273,961	0.002	0.042	0	1
Has Albanian Councilor	1986–2020	273,961	0.001	0.027	0	1
Has Moroccan Councilor	1986–2020	273,961	0.001	0.028	0	1
Romanian Donors per Municipality	2003–2018	128,205	0.009	0.112	0	7
Albanian Donors per Municipality	2003–2018	128,205	0.004	0.071	0	4
Moroccan Donors per Municipality	2003–2018	128,205	0.002	0.045	0	5
Native Donors per Municipality	2003–2018	128,205	2.650	11.884	0	896
Right-Leaning Mayor	2003–2020	138,080	0.095	0.293	0	1
Left-Leaning Mayor	2003–2020	138,080	0.137	0.343	0	1
Centrist Mayor	2003–2020	138,080	0.013	0.113	0	1
Civic Party Mayor	2003–2020	138,080	0.665	0.472	0	1
Five Star Movement Mayor	2003–2020	138,080	0.002	0.049	0	1
Revenue Share: Property Tax	2003–2015	99,839	0.713	0.154	0	1
Revenue Share: Waste Tax	2003–2015	99,839	0.287	0.154	0	1
Expenditure Share: Transportation	2003–2020	122,919	0.137	0.096	0	0.961
Expenditure Share: Social Policies	2003–2020	122,919	0.095	0.080	0	0.903
Expenditure Share: Public Security	2003–2020	122,919	0.031	0.025	0	0.571
Expenditure Share: Public Housing	2003–2020	122,919	0.008	0.036	0	0.905
Expenditure Share: Education	2003–2020	122,919	0.095	0.071	0	0.991

The table displays the summary statistics on the dependent and independent variables used in the analyses throughout the paper.

Table 4: Political Representation (Pooled)

Dep var: presence of councilor born in	(1) Romania	(2) Romania	(3) Romania	(4) Albania	(5) Albania	(6) Albania	(7) Morocco	(8) Morocco	(9) Morocco
Romanian share in 2003	-0.024	0.006		0.005	0.007		0.028	-0.004	
	(0.040)	(0.025)		(0.021)	(0.023)		(0.033)	(0.022)	
Albanian share in 2003	0.065*	0.042		0.025	0.025		0.000	0.017	
	(0.036)	(0.039)		(0.032)	(0.030)		(0.031)	(0.027)	
Moroccan share in 2003	-0.029	-0.020		0.014	0.002		-0.050***	-0.013	
	(0.025)	(0.016)		(0.016)	(0.014)		(0.017)	(0.012)	
Romanian share in 2003	**0.497***	**0.456***	**0.558***	-0.006	-0.008	0.003	-0.044	0.001	-0.045
× Post2007	(0.140)	(0.157)	(0.133)	(0.031)	(0.036)	(0.028)	(0.039)	(0.026)	(0.041)
Albanian share in 2003	-0.008	0.025	0.039	**0.237***	**0.236***	**0.242***	0.024	0.002	0.029
× Post2007	(0.071)	(0.081)	(0.065)	(0.069)	(0.082)	(0.066)	(0.040)	(0.039)	(0.038)
Moroccan share in 2003	0.035	0.023	0.073	-0.040*	-0.024	-0.035	**0.096***	**0.045***	**0.098***
× Post2007	(0.049)	(0.053)	(0.047)	(0.024)	(0.021)	(0.025)	(0.031)	(0.027)	(0.029)
Province FE	✓			✓			✓		
Year FE	✓		✓	✓		✓	✓		✓
Province × Year FE		✓			✓			✓	
Municipality FE			✓			✓			✓
N	137,916	137,916	138,120	137,916	137,916	138,120	137,916	137,916	138,120
Dep var mean	0.003	0.003	0.003	0.001	0.001	0.001	0.001	0.001	0.001
Adj. R^2	0.009	0.008	0.272	0.020	0.023	0.225	0.006	0.005	0.271

Standard errors clustered by municipality in parentheses * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$

The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when a given municipality has at least one councilor born in the origin country specified in the second row in a given year.

Table 5: Political Orientation of Romanian Councilors

	Non-Romanian-born			Romanian-born			
	N	Mean	SD	N	Mean	SD	Difference
Winning party	790030	0.60	0.49	265	0.68	0.47	0.083***
Civic	1326900	0.74	0.44	369	0.72	0.45	-0.021
Center	1326900	0.01	0.11	369	0.01	0.07	-0.007
Left	1326900	0.12	0.32	369	0.12	0.33	0.007
Right	1326900	0.10	0.30	369	0.11	0.32	0.017
Winning party(year<2014)	268089	0.44	0.50	53	0.30	0.46	-0.137**

The table above reports a summary statistics of the partisan affiliation of the elected Romanian-born candidates. The last row reports statistics on the non-Romanian-born and Romanian-born councilors who were elected before 2014 and were a member of the winning party or coalition in their municipality.

Table 6: Likelihood of Electing a Romanian-Born Councilor in Competitive Elections

Dep var: presence of councilor born in	(1) Romania	(2) Romania	(3) Albania	(4) Albania	(5) Morocco	(6) Morocco
Romanian share in 2003 × Cycle 3	0.932***	0.952***		0.003		-0.052
	(0.154)	(0.156)		(0.114)		(0.113)
Romanian share in 2003 × Cycle 4	0.241	0.287*		0.063		-0.121
	(0.155)	(0.158)		(0.115)		(0.114)
Romanian share in 2003 × Cycle 5	1.755***	1.830***		-0.140		-0.145
	(0.181)	(0.183)		(0.134)		(0.132)
Romanian share in 2003 × Cycle 3 × Competitive Election	**-0.479**	**-0.380**		0.327		0.036
	(0.670)	**(0.693)**		(0.505)		(0.499)
Romanian share in 2003 × Cycle 4 × Competitive Election	**1.793*****	**1.949*****		-0.206		0.375
	(0.647)	**(0.670)**		(0.489)		(0.483)
Romanian share in 2003 × Cycle 5 × Competitive Election	**1.413***	**1.786****		0.045		0.501
	(0.733)	**(0.761)**		(0.555)		(0.548)
Albanian share in 2003 × Cycle 3		-0.057	0.164*	0.165*		0.019
		(0.131)	(0.093)	(0.095)		(0.094)
Albanian share in 2003 × Cycle 4		-0.173	0.333***	0.349***		0.180*
		(0.135)	(0.096)	(0.099)		(0.097)
Albanian share in 2003 × Cycle 5		-0.420***	1.140***	1.173***		0.134
		(0.162)	(0.115)	(0.118)		(0.117)
Albanian share in 2003 × Cycle 3 × Competitive Election		-0.154	**0.466**	**0.362**		-0.023
		(0.603)	**(0.416)**	**(0.440)**		(0.434)
Albanian share in 2003 × Cycle 4 × Competitive Election		-0.417	**-0.308**	**-0.348**		-0.725
		(0.623)	**(0.430)**	**(0.454)**		(0.449)
Albanian share in 2003 × Cycle 5 × Competitive Election		0.192	**-0.482**	**-0.740**		-0.297
		(0.662)	**(0.456)**	**(0.483)**		(0.477)
Moroccan share in 2003 × Cycle 3		-0.049		-0.011	-0.023	-0.021
		(0.096)		(0.070)	(0.068)	(0.069)
Moroccan share in 2003 × Cycle 4		-0.081		-0.094	0.029	0.012
		(0.098)		(0.072)	(0.070)	(0.071)
Moroccan share in 2003 × Cycle 5		-0.062		-0.067	0.511***	0.500***
		(0.125)		(0.091)	(0.088)	(0.090)
Moroccan share in 2003 × Cycle 3 × Competitive Election		-0.158		0.186	**-0.061**	**-0.071**
		(0.478)		(0.349)	**(0.327)**	**(0.344)**
Moroccan share in 2003 × Cycle 4 × Competitive Election		-0.141		0.209	**0.551***	**0.616***
		(0.479)		(0.349)	**(0.326)**	**(0.345)**
Moroccan share in 2003 × Cycle 5 × Competitive Election		-0.912*		0.704*	**-0.147**	**-0.150**
		(0.516)		(0.376)	**(0.349)**	**(0.372)**
N	24,916	24,916	24,916	24,916	24,916	24,916
Adj. R^2	0.12995	0.13019	0.02315	0.02312	0.07202	0.07212

Standard errors clustered by municipality in parentheses * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$

The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when a given municipality has at least one councilor born in the origin country specified in the second row in a given year.

Table 7: First Stage. Dependent Variable: New Arrivals

	(1)	(2)
Romanian share in 2003	0.7581^{***}	
× Post2007	(0.0541)	
Early Romanian Share		-0.0385
		(0.0574)
Early Romanian Share		0.5726^{***}
× Post2007		(0.0431)
Instrument	**0.0068*****	**0.0075*****
	(0.0010)	**(0.0011)**
Municipality FE	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓
Number of observations	115887	115897
Kleibergen-Paap rk Wald F statistic	42.70	47.74

Standard errors clustered by municipality in parentheses

* $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$

The table above reports the first stage result for the 2SLS IV regression in equation (2). In column (1), we use Romanian share at the 2003 level for $Early_{mt}$, in column (2), we let $Early_{mt}$ equal to the current Romanian share in year t up to 2007 and fix the share at the 2007 share from 2008 onward.

Table 8: IV Results: Likelihood of Electing Romanian-Born Councilor

	(1) OLS	(2) OLS	(3) 2SLS	(4) 2SLS
Romanian share in 2003	0.271**		0.472*	
× Post2007	(0.130)		(0.276)	
Early Romanian Share		0.124***		0.102
		(0.033)		(0.106)
Early Romanian Share		0.218**		0.518*
× Post2007		(0.099)		(0.274)
New Romanian Inflow	0.152**	0.133*	-0.117	-0.398
	(0.066)	(0.065)	(0.336)	(0.473)
Municipality FE	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓
Obs	115,887	115,897	115,887	115,887
Dep var mean	0.002	0.002	0.002	0.002

The table above presents a comparison of the OLS and 2SLS specifications of Equation 6. The first two columns present the results from the OLS specification. Columns (3) and (4) are 2SLS results that correspond to columns (1) and (2) from the first stage specifications in Table 7. Standard errors clustered by municipality in parentheses. * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$

Table 9: Prosocial Behavior: number of consent to organ donations

	(OLS)	(OLS)	(IV)	(IV)
	New Romanian donors per year			
Romanian % in 2003 * Post2007	0.4088***		5.4535***	
	(0.0988)		(0.8830)	
New Romanian inflow	0.1185***	0.0916**	-6.6240***	-5.9346***
	(0.0390)	(0.0332)	(1.2355)	(1.0743)
Early Romanian %		0.1320		-0.1146
		(0.0930)		(0.3714)
Early Romanian % * Post2007		0.3279***		3.7325***
		(0.0968)		(0.5599)
N	115,887	115,897	115,887	115,897
ymean	0.009	0.009	0.009	0.009

The table above presents a comparison of the OLS and 2SLS specifications of Equation 6. The first two columns present the results from the OLS specification. Columns (3) and (4) are 2SLS results that correspond to columns (1) and (2) from the first stage specifications in Table 7. Standard errors clustered by municipality in parentheses. * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$

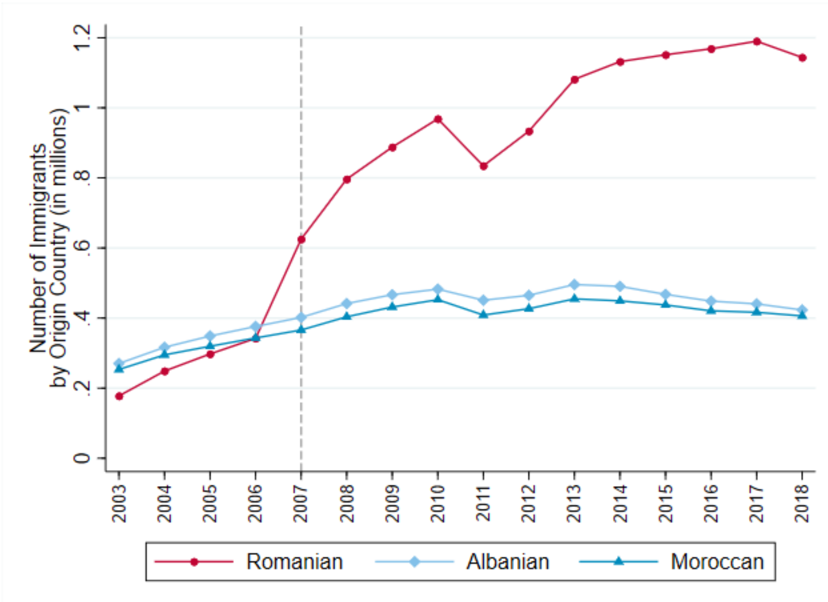
Table 10: Prosocial Behavior: number of consent to organ donations as a share of total Romanian population

	(OLS)	(OLS)	(IV)	(IV)
	New Romanian donors %			
Romanian % in 2003 * Post2007	0.0058**		0.0291**	
	(0.0026)		(0.0142)	
New Romanian inflow	-0.0001	-0.0003	-0.0326*	-0.0319*
	(0.0014)	(0.0018)	(0.0183)	(0.0180)
Early Romanian %		-0.0061		-0.0080
		(0.0038)		(0.0071)
Early Romanian % * Post2007		0.0054**		0.0230**
		(0.0024)		(0.0111)
N	104,686	104,696	104,686	104,696
ymean	0.00014	0.00014	0.00014	0.00014

The table above presents a comparison of the OLS and 2SLS specifications of equation (2). The first two columns present the results from the OLS specification. Columns (3) and (4) are 2SLS results that correspond to columns (1) and (2) from the first stage specifications in Table 7. Standard errors clustered by municipality in parentheses. * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$

Figures

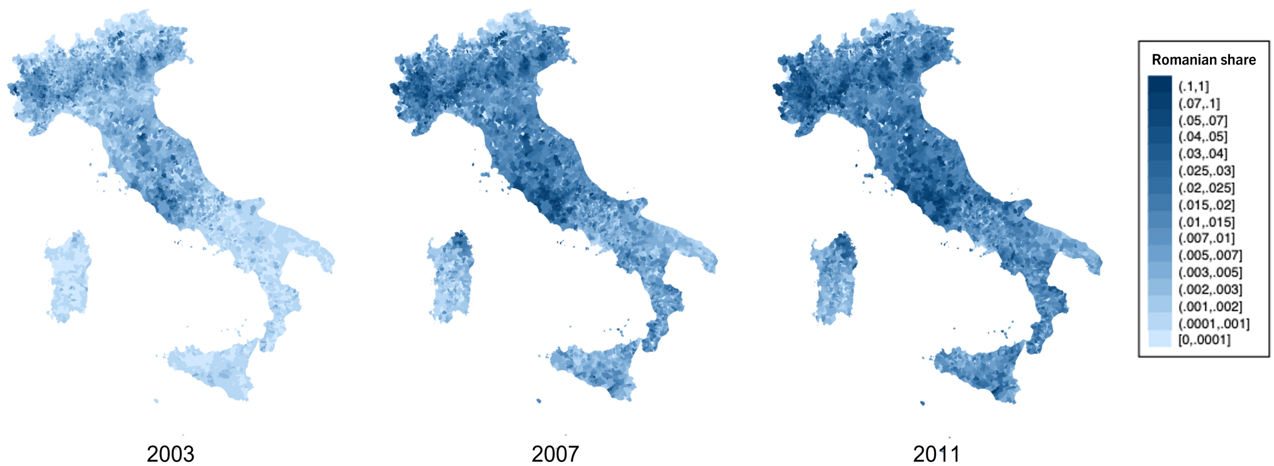
Figure 1: Number of Foreign Nationals Living in Italy by Nationality



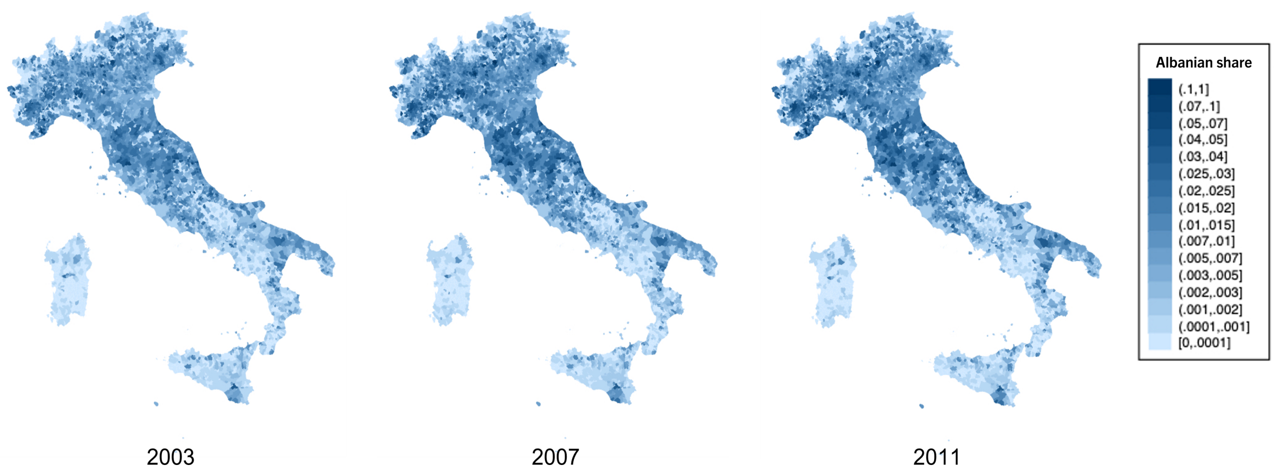
The figure shows the evolution of the yearly number of foreign nationals living in Italy by their nationality from 2003 to 2018. (Source: ISTAT)

Figure 2: Maps of Immigrant Shares at the Municipality Level

Romanian Share by Municipality and Year



Albanian Share by Municipality and Year



Moroccan Share by Municipality and Year

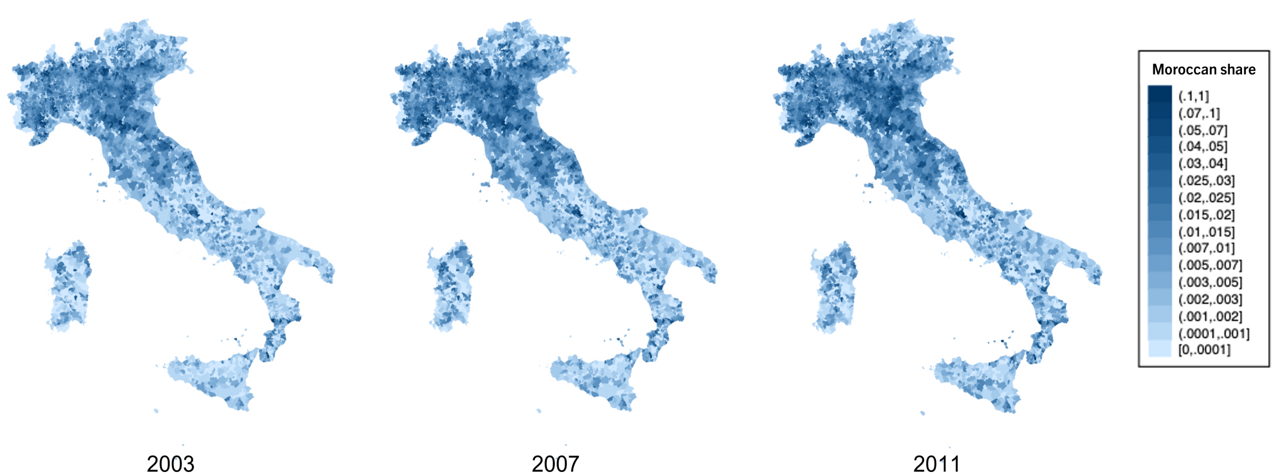
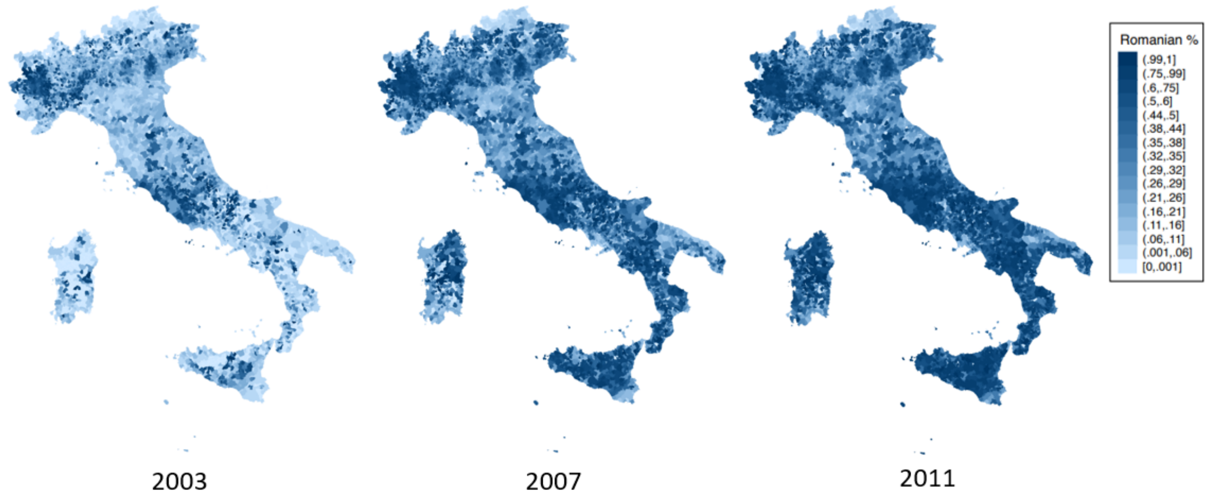
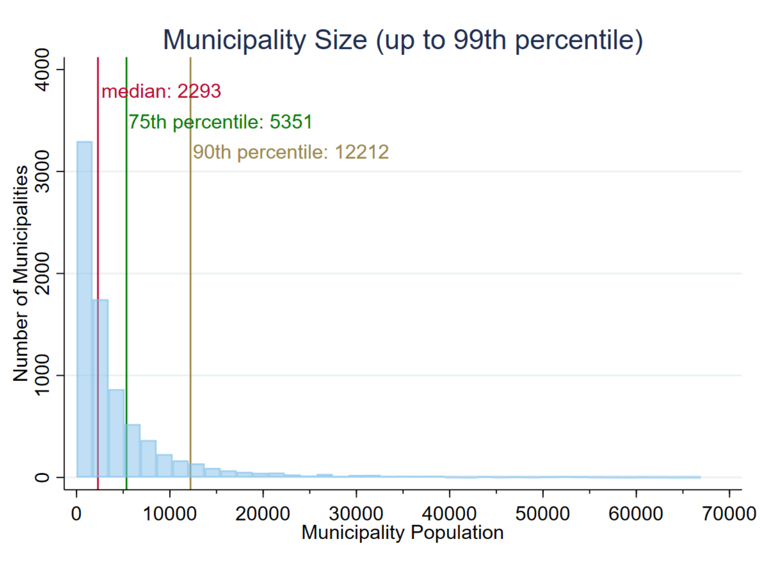


Figure 3: Share of Romanians Among Immigrants by Municipality and Year



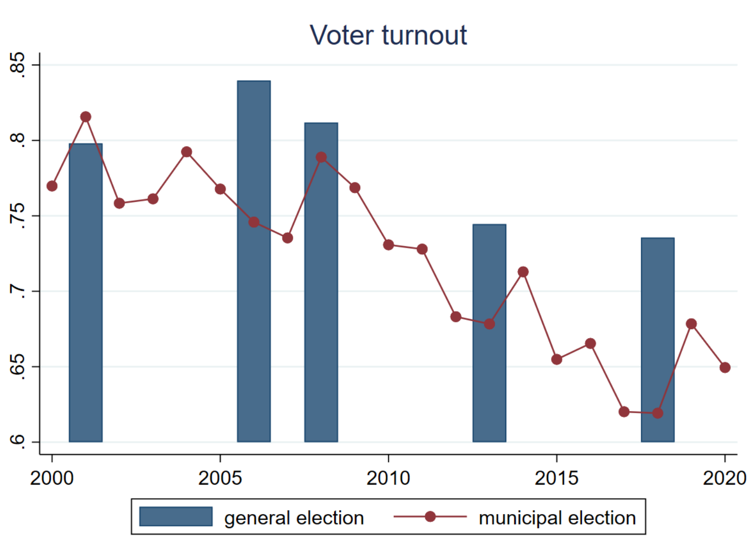
The maps above display the number of Romanians as a fraction of total immigrants within a given municipality in years 2003, 2007, and 2011 respectively.

Figure 4: Distribution of Municipality Population



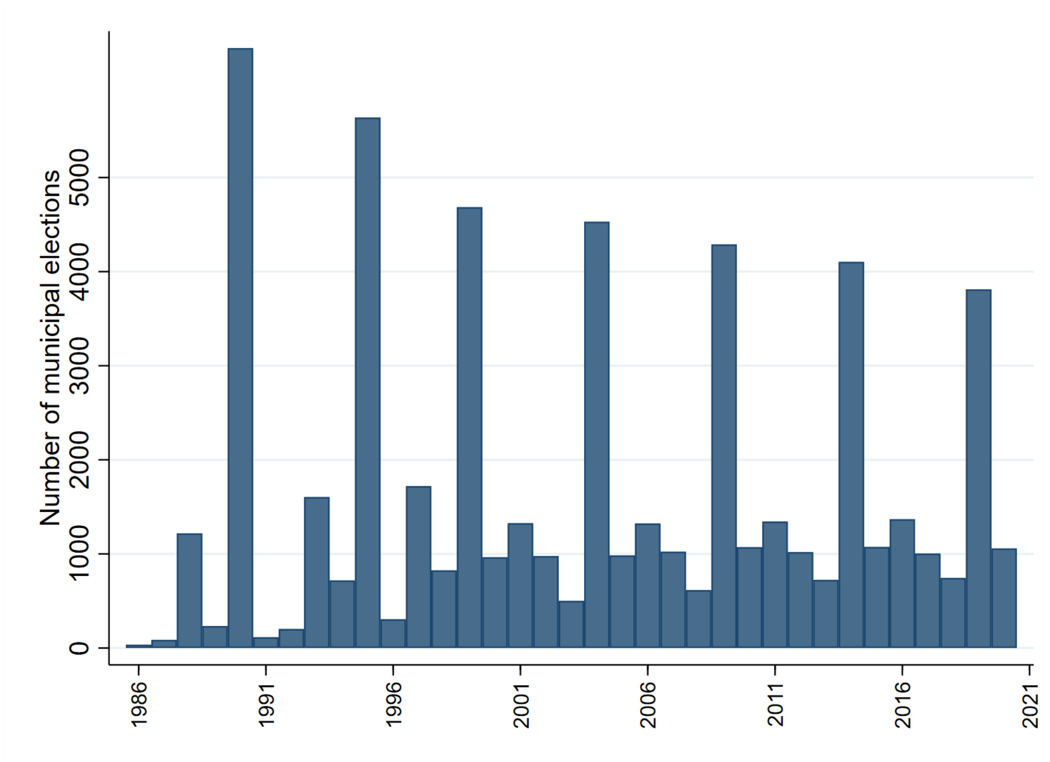
The graph above shows the distribution of municipality population for all municipalities up to the 99th percentile by population. The median municipality has 2,293 residents. (Source: 2001 Italian Census)

Figure 5: Turnout for General vs. Municipal Elections in Italy



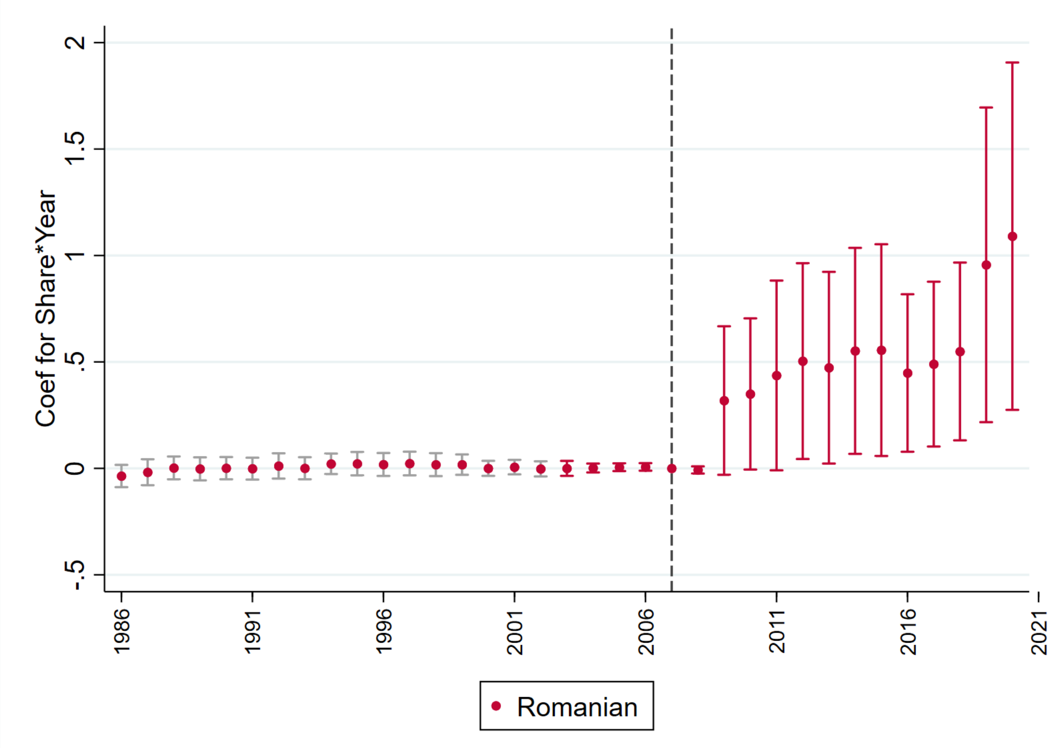
The graph above compares the turnout for general vs. municipal elections in Italy. (Source: Ministry of Interior of Italy)

Figure 6: Municipal Election Cycle



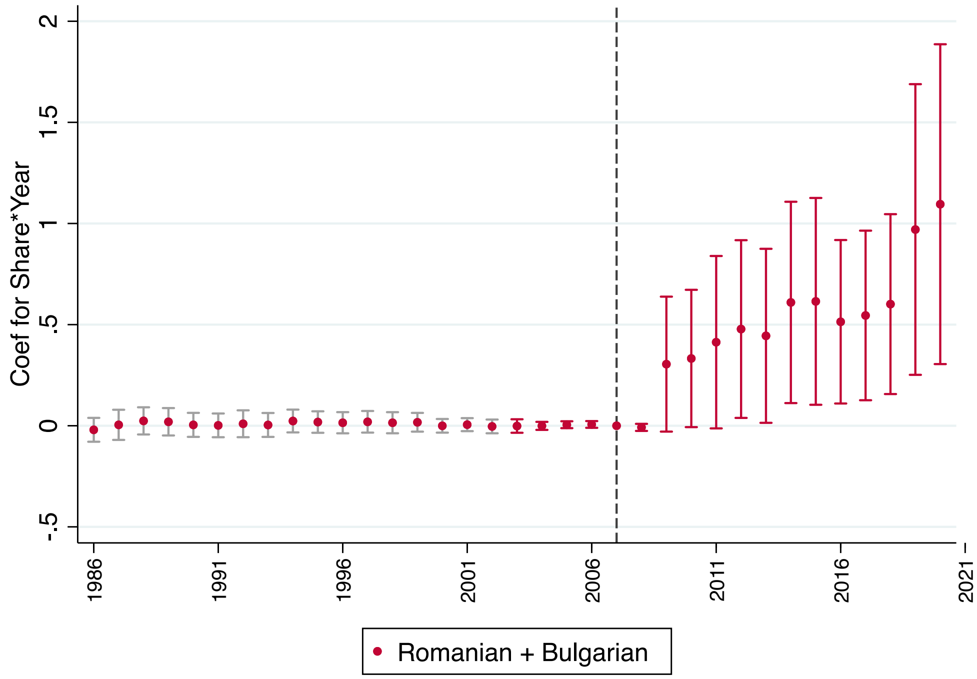
The graph above displays the number of municipal elections that took place in each year from 1986 to 2020. Although the municipal election cycle is asynchronous, the majority of municipalities have their election during the biggest cycle.

Figure 7: Event Study for Political Representation with Romanian Share Fixed at its 2003 Level (Municipality Fixed Effect)



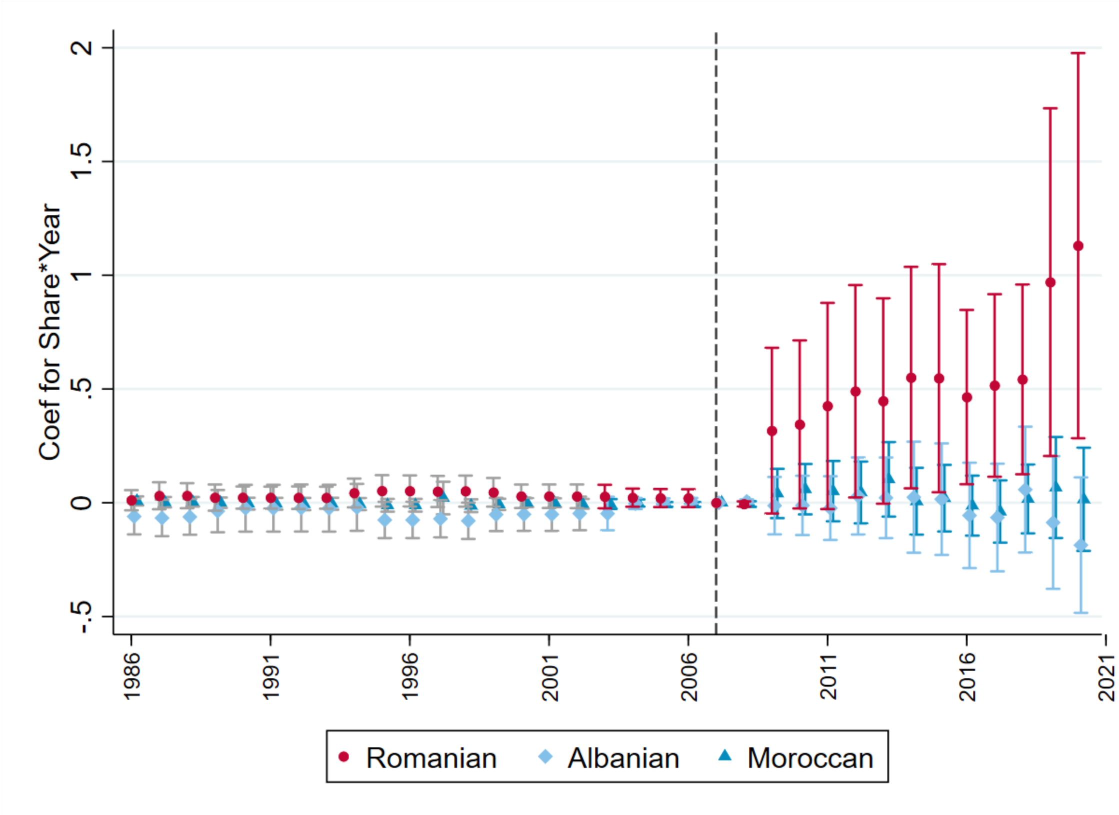
The graph above plots the coefficients from the event study for the interaction terms between Romanian share fixed at its 2003 level and year dummies as shown in Equation 1. The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when the given municipality has a Romanian-born councilor in the given year and 0 otherwise. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level.

Figure 8: Event Study for Combined Political Representation of Romanians and Bulgarians with Romanian and Bulgarian Combined Share Fixed at its 2003 Level (Municipality Fixed Effect)



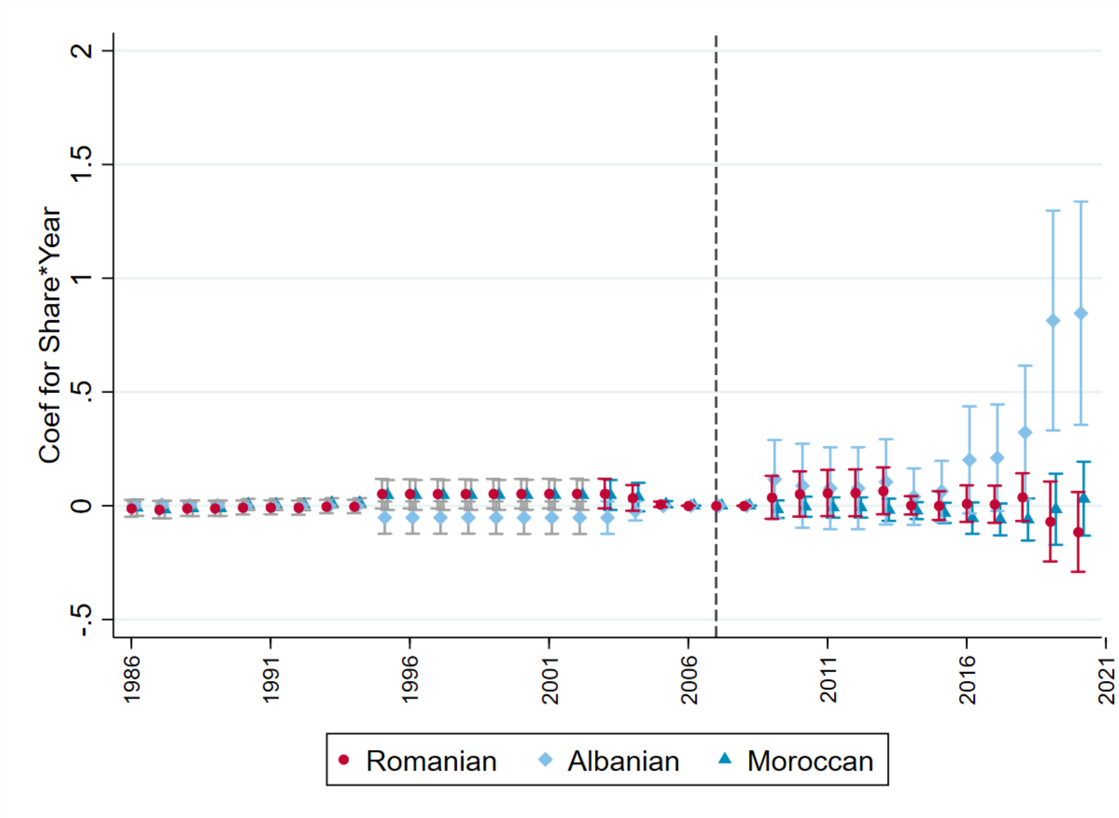
Same as Figure 7 but now the outcome is chance of electing a Romanian or Bulgarian politician on the sum of Romanian and Bulgarian share of the population

Figure 9: Event Study for Likelihood of Having a Romanian-Born Councilor with Fixed Immigrant Shares (Controlling for the Presence of Other Immigrant Communities)



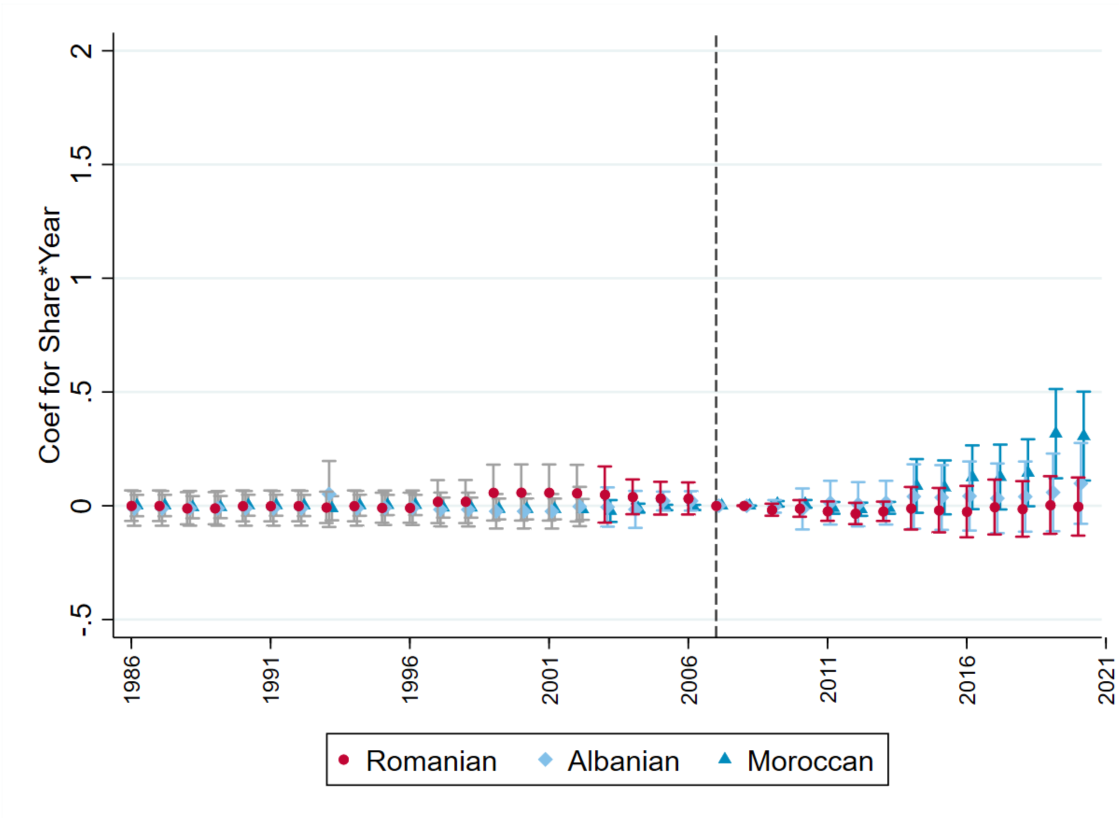
The graph above plots the coefficients from the event study for the interaction terms between immigrant shares fixed at their 2003 level and the year dummies, as described in Equation 1. The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when the given municipality has a *Romanian-born* councilor in the given year and 0 otherwise. The coefficients are from a single regression including both interaction terms between Romanian share and year dummies and interaction terms between presence of other immigrant communities (Albanian and Moroccans) and year dummies, which act as control variables. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level.

Figure 10: Event Study for Likelihood of Having a Albanian-Born Councilor with Fixed Immigrant Shares (Controlling for the Presence of Other Immigrant Communities)



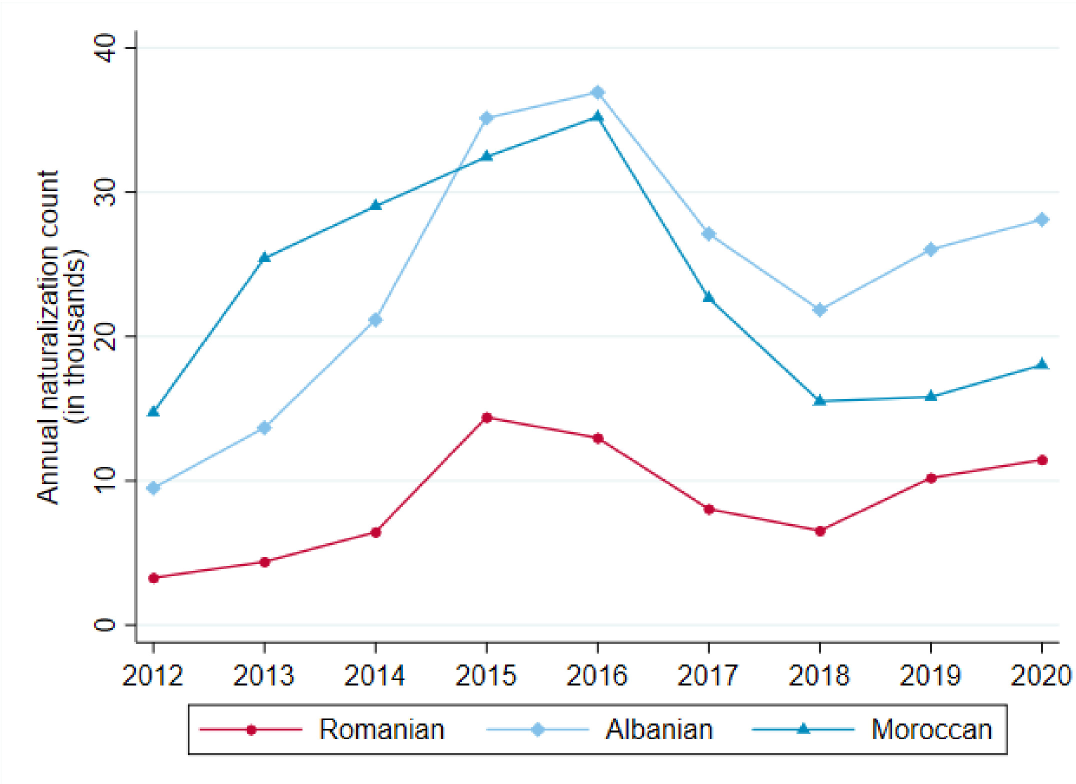
The graph above plots the coefficients from the event study for the interaction terms between immigrant shares fixed at their 2003 level and the year dummies. The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when the given municipality has a *Albanian-born* councilor in the given year and 0 otherwise. The coefficients are from a single regression including both interaction terms between Albanian share and year dummies and interaction terms between presence of other immigrant communities (Romanian and Moroccans) and year dummies, which act as control variables. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level.

Figure 11: Event Study for Likelihood of Having a Moroccan-Born Councilor with Fixed Immigrant Shares (Controlling for the Presence of Other Immigrant Communities)



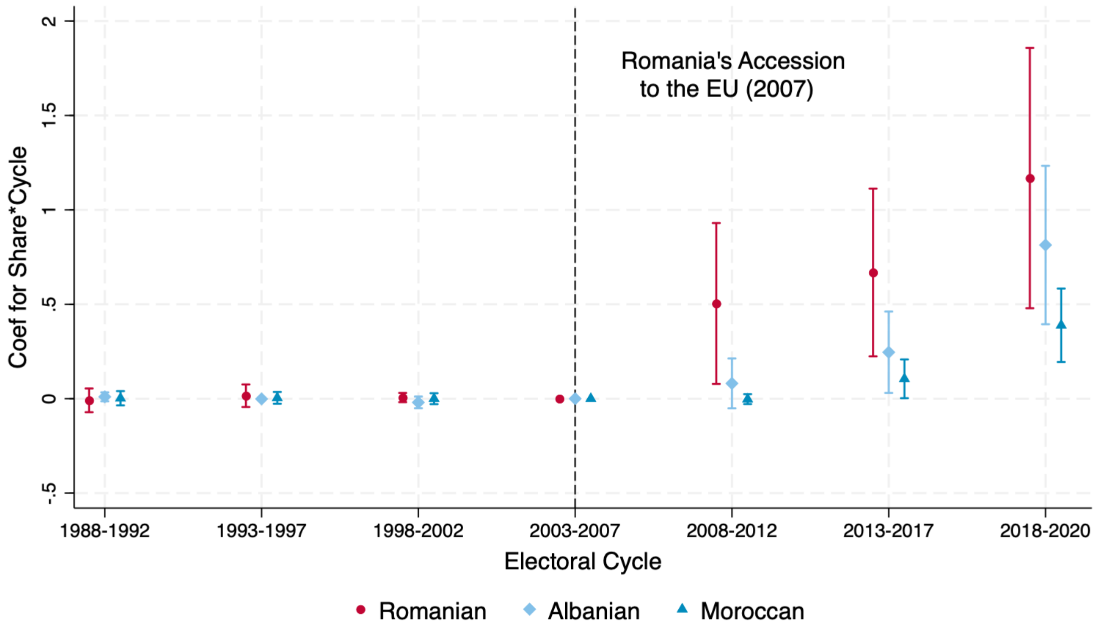
The graph above plots the coefficients from the event study for the interaction terms between immigrant shares fixed at their 2003 level and the year dummies. The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when the given municipality has a *Moroccan-born* councilor in the given year and 0 otherwise. The coefficients are from a single regression including both interaction terms between Moroccans share and year dummies and interaction terms between presence of other immigrant communities (Romanian and Albanian) and year dummies, which act as control variables. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level.

Figure 12: Annual Naturalization Count in Italy by Origin Country



The graph above displays annual naturalization count in Italy for migrants from Romania, Albania, and Morocco respectively. We do not have data on naturalization before 2012.

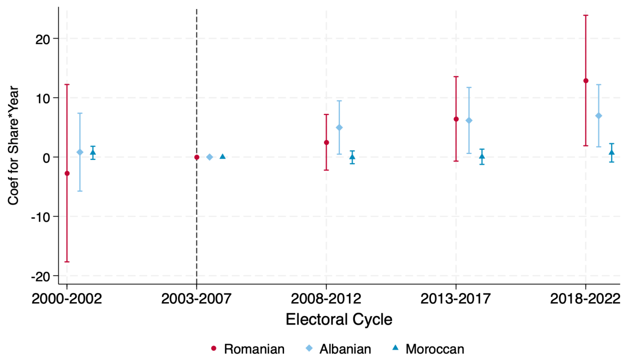
Figure 13: Event Study for Political Representation with immigrant Share Fixed at its 2003 Level Collapsed to Electoral Cycles (Municipality Fixed Effect)



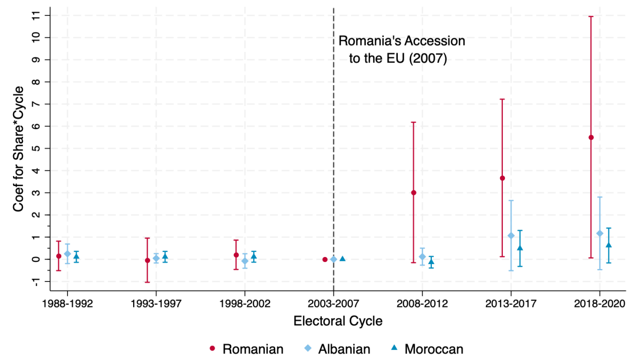
The graph above plots the coefficients from the event study where the years are collapsed to electoral cycles. The plotted coefficients are for the interaction terms between Romanian/Albanian/Moroccan share fixed at its 2003 level and cycle dummies. The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when the given municipality has a Romanian/Albanian/Moroccan-born councilor in the given year and 0 otherwise. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level.

Figure 14: Probability of having a Romanian/Albanian/Moroccan-born candidate vs councilor for the same sample of 333 municipalities with full info on candidates identity

(a) Probability of immigrant candidate

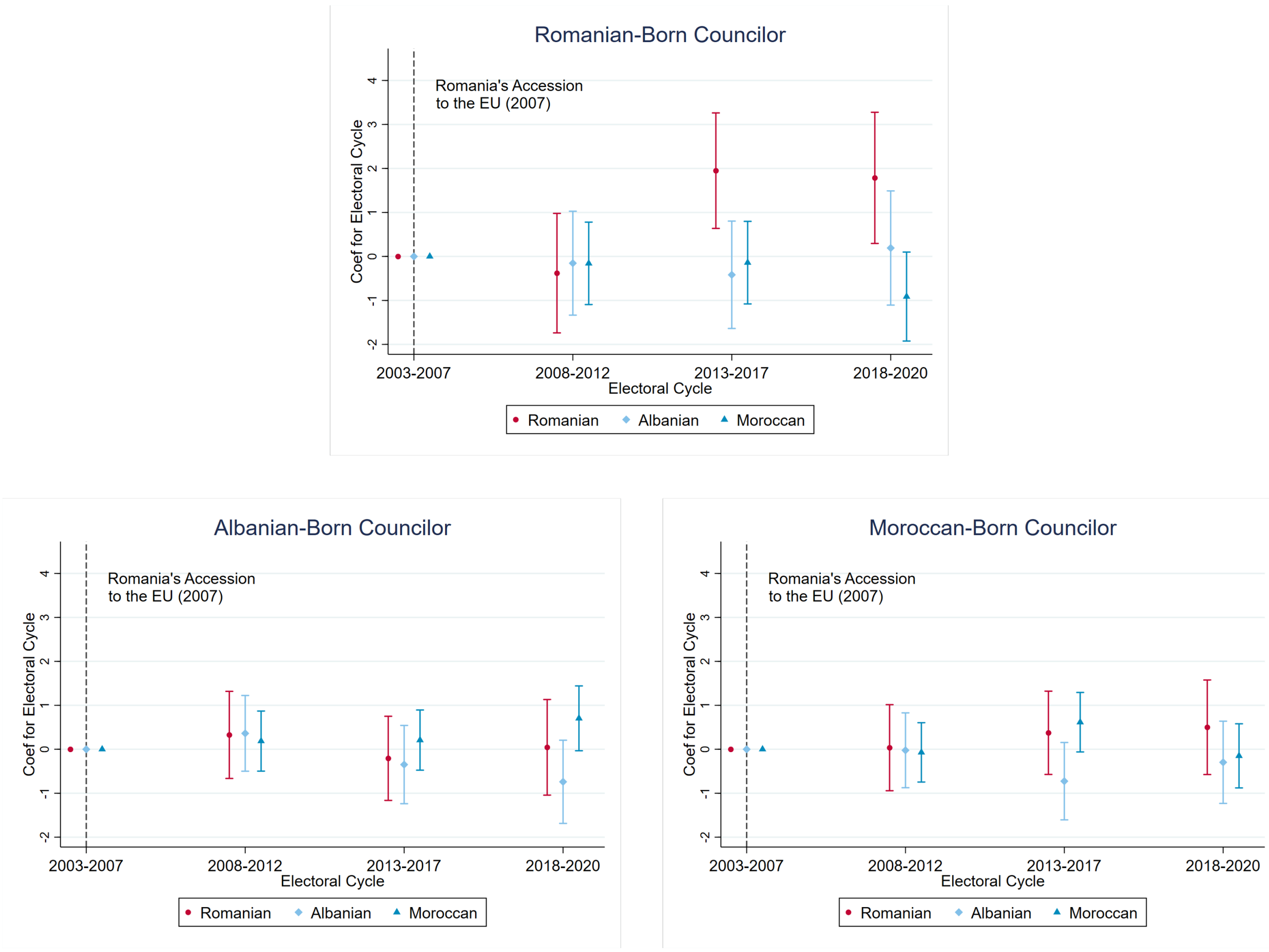


(b) Probability of immigrant councilor



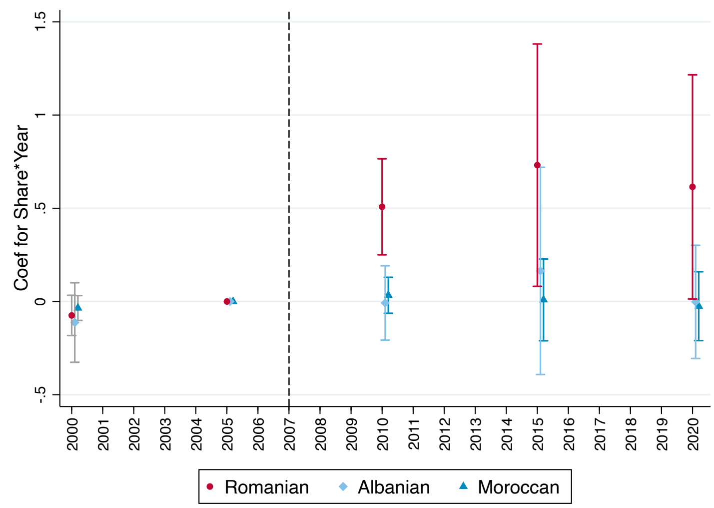
The graph above plots the coefficients from the event study where the years are collapsed to the corresponding electoral cycles. The plotted coefficients are for the interaction terms between immigrants' share fixed at its 2003 level and time dummies. The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when the given municipality has a Romanian-born, Albanian-born or Moroccan-born candidate in the given year, and 0 otherwise. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level. Sample: 333 municipalities.

Figure 15: Foreign-born Councilors in Competitive Elections



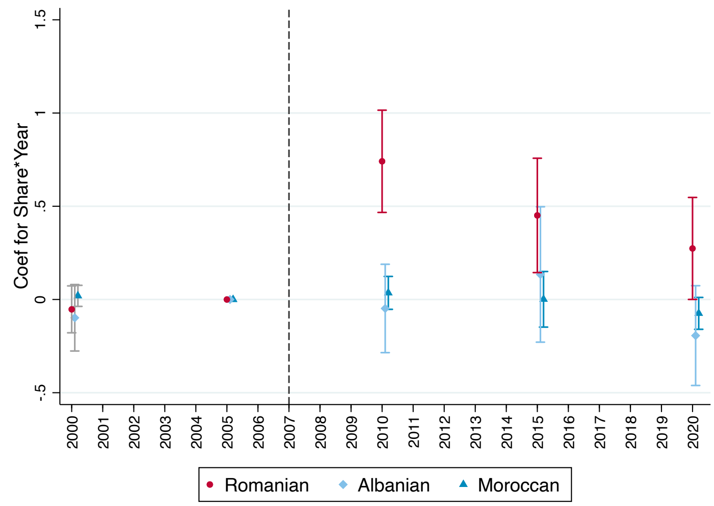
The graph above plots the coefficients from the triple-difference specification for the interaction terms between immigrant shares fixed at their 2003 level, the cycle dummies, and an indicator for close elections, as shown in Equation 3. The dependent variable is stated above each graph. It is an indicator variable equal to 1 when the municipality has a councilor who was born in the specific foreign country, in the given cycle. In each graph, the coefficients are from a single regression where the main coefficients of interest are those for interaction terms between the immigrant share of interest and cycle dummies, and the presence of other immigrant communities are controlled for (like in Figure 9). The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively.

Figure 16: Difference Between the Number of Registered Voters in Municipal vs. Regional Elections as a Share of Municipal Population



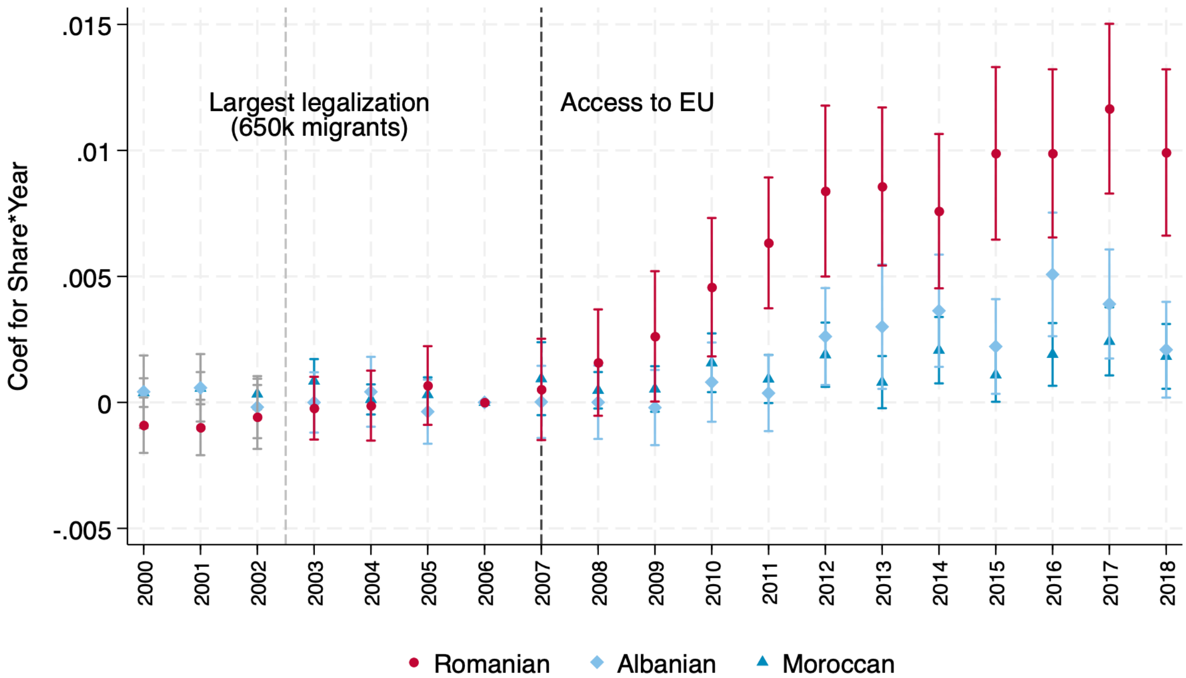
The above graph displays the coefficients for interaction terms where the interaction is between immigrant share of interest at its 2003 level and year dummies in equation (5). The dependent variable is the difference in the number of registered voters as a percentage of the municipality population between municipal and regional elections. The red dot refers to the regression where the immigrant share of interest refers to Romanian share whereas the light blue diamond and the blue triangle correspond to separate regressions where the immigrant share of interest refers to Albanian and Moroccan share respectively. We restricted to the main cycle of regional elections: a five-year interval between 2000 and 2020

Figure 17: Difference Between the Number of Actual Voters in Municipal vs. Regional Elections as a Share of Municipal Population



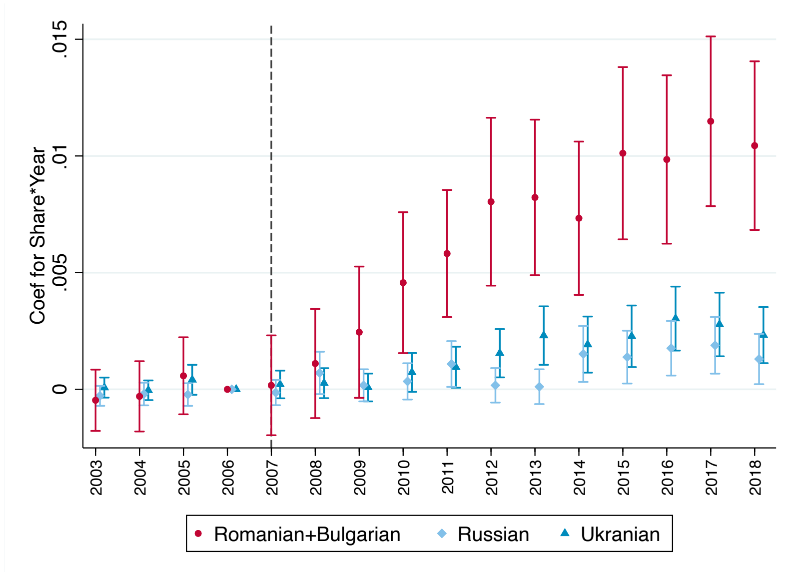
The above graph displays the coefficients for interaction terms where the interaction between immigrant share of interest at its 2003 level and year dummies in equation (5). The dependent variable is the difference between the number of actual voters in municipal elections and that in regional elections. The red dot refers to the regression where the immigrant share of interest refers to Romanian share, whereas the light blue diamond and the blue triangle correspond to separate regressions where the immigrant share of interest refers to Albanian and Moroccan share respectively. We restricted to the main cycle of regional elections: a five year interval between 2000 and 2020

Figure 18: Event Study of Organ Donation Registration Rate



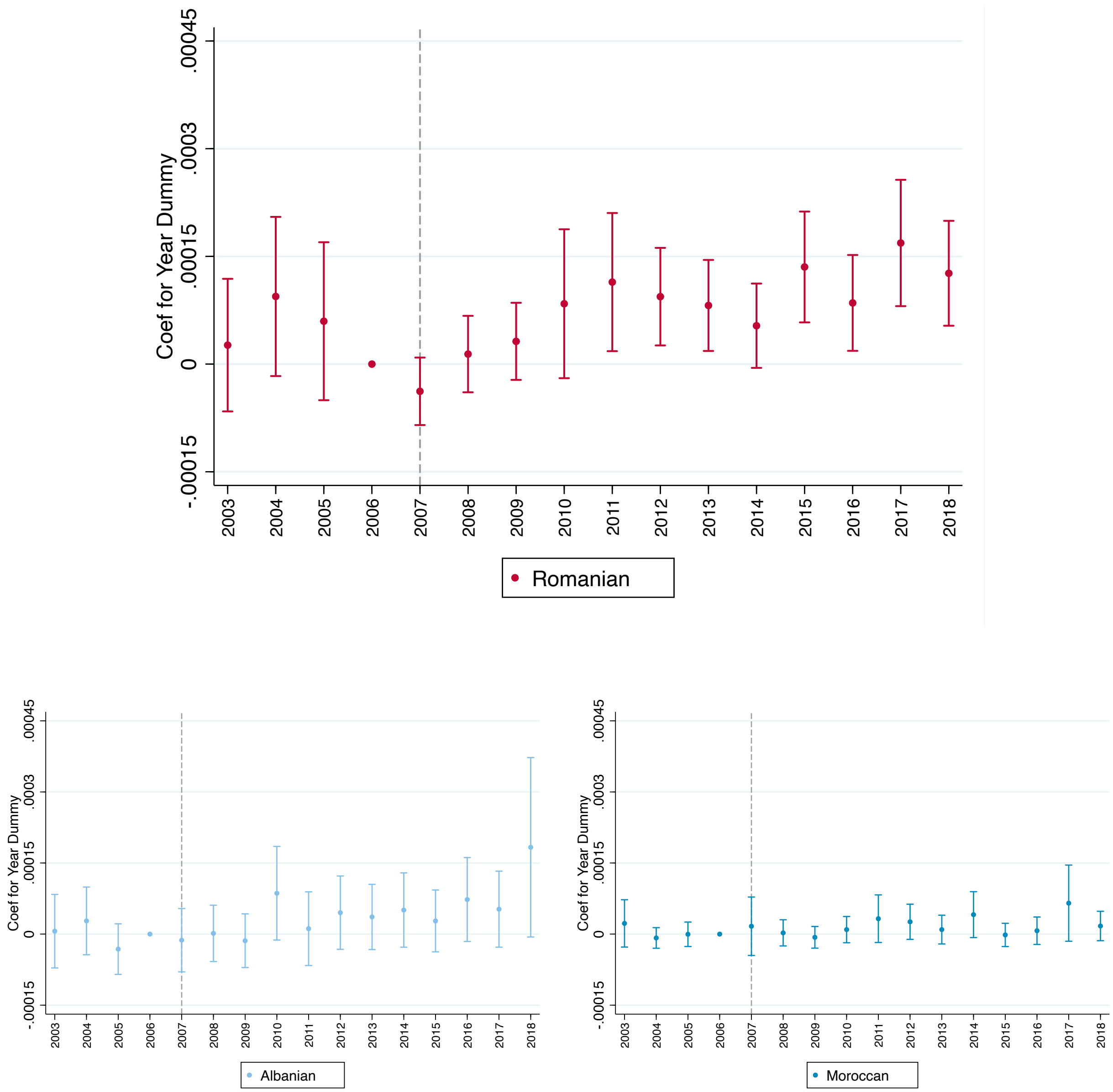
The graphs above illustrate the coefficients for year dummies in $DonorConsent_{mt} = \mu_0 + \mu_1 ImmigCount_{mt} + [\sum_{s=2003}^{2018} \pi_s \mathbb{1}_t\{t = s\}] + \eta_m + \nu_{mt}$ where standard errors are clustered by municipality. In three different regressions, the dependent variable is the number of consents given by those who were born in Romania, Albania, and Morocco respectively, in a given municipality and year. The variable $ImmigCount_{mt}$ corresponds to the number of residents in a given municipality and year who are nationals of Romania, Albania, and Morocco respectively in accordance with the dependent variable. We only have data for $ImmigCount_{mt}$ between 2003-2018. To obtain the 3 years leading up to 2003, we performed a linear extrapolation, in which negative values from the extrapolation were set to zero.

Figure 19: Donation for other large influx, christian orthodox countries (and Romanian or Bulgarians)



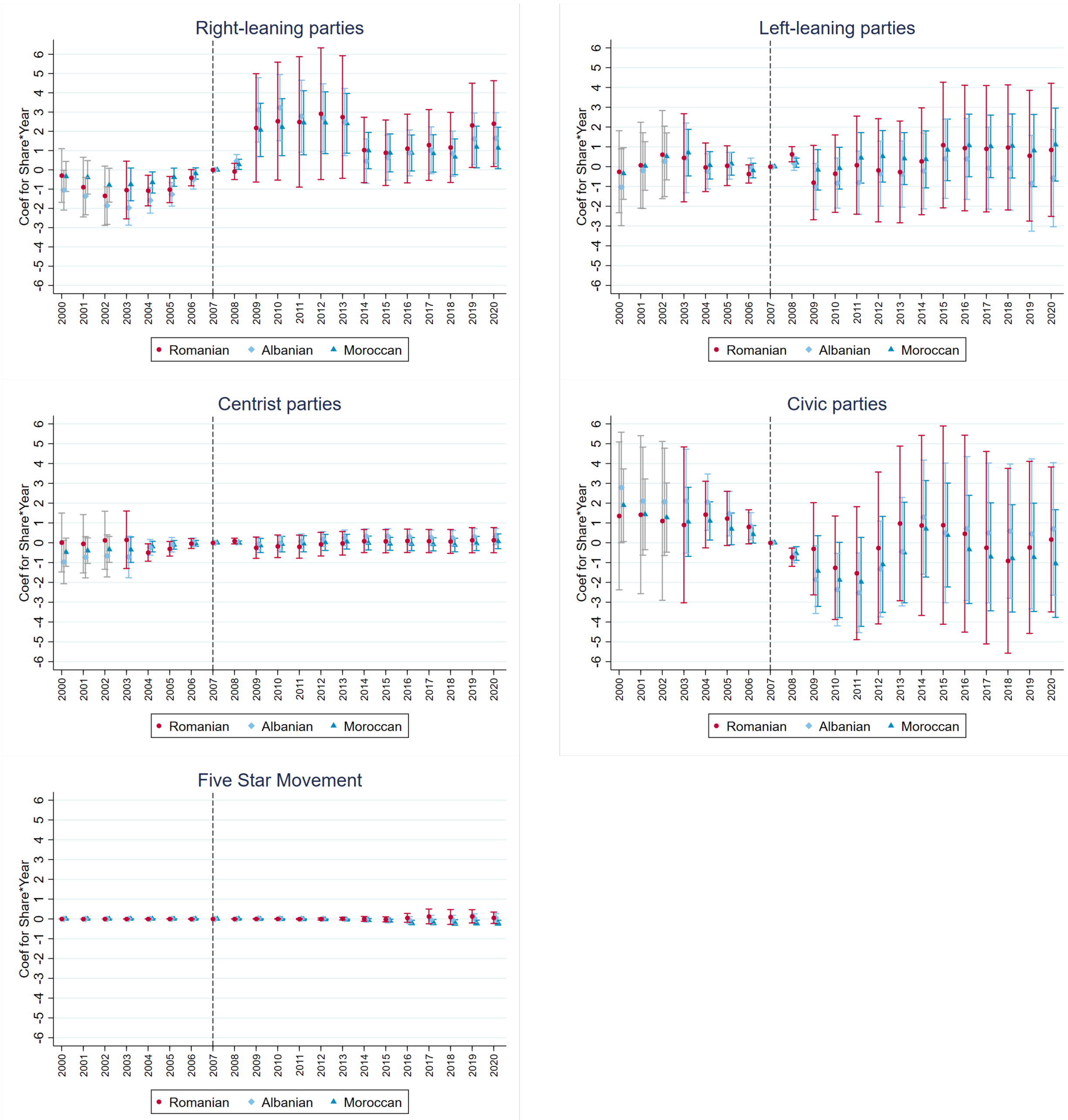
Same as Figure 18, but coefficients for Romanian or Bulgarians, Russians, Ukrainians. No extrapolated data, real data only

Figure 20: Social Capital: Share by group giving consent to organ donations



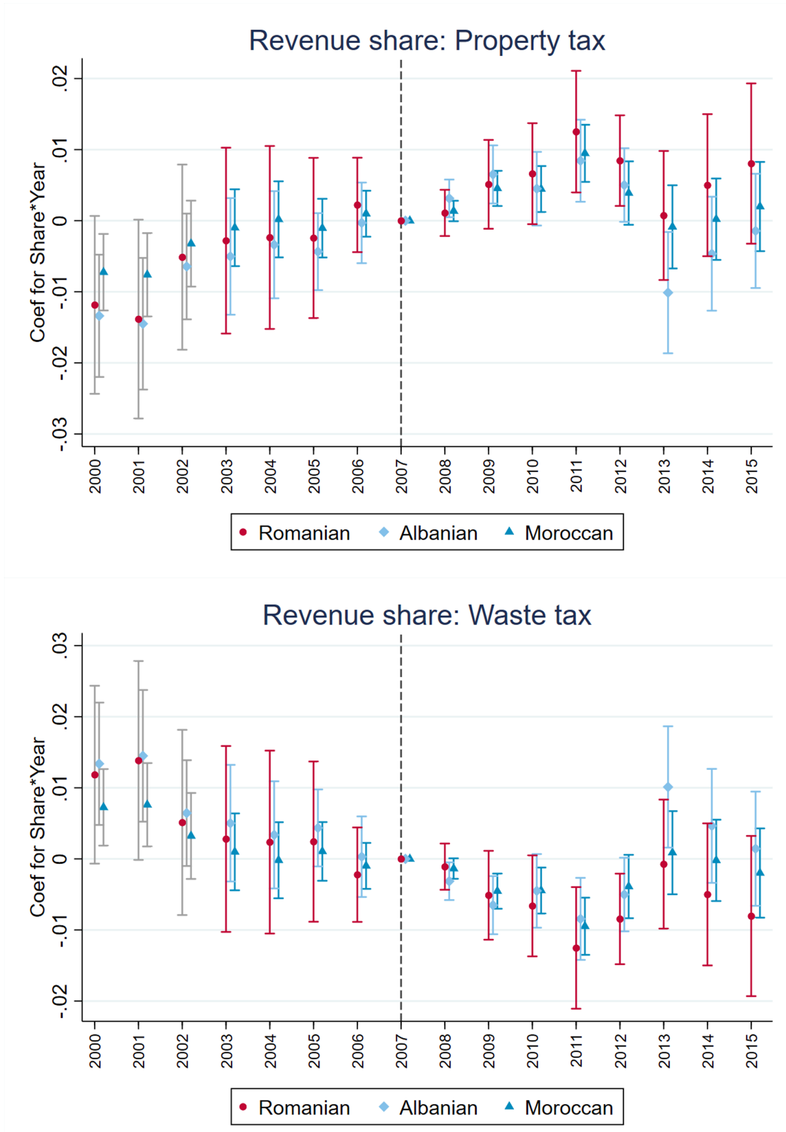
The table replicates Figure 18 but the outcome is now the share of the immigrant population (by place of birth) giving consent to organ donation.

Figure 21: Event Study of Winning Parties/Coalitions



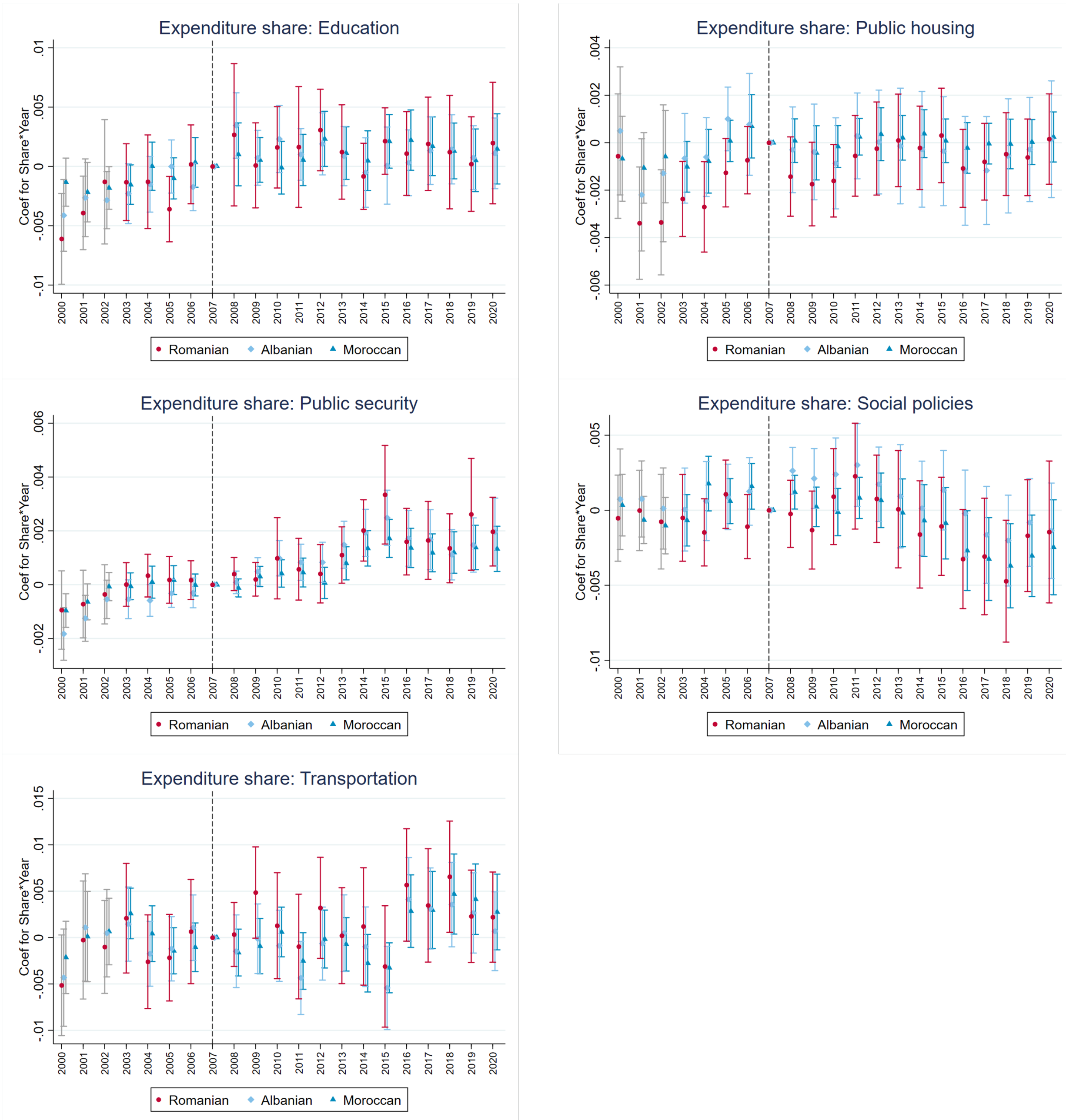
The graphs above plot the coefficients from the event study for the interaction terms between the immigrant share of interest fixed at its 2003 level and year dummies. The red dot refers to the regression in which the immigrant share of interest is Romanian share whereas the light blue diamond and the blue triangle correspond to separate regressions where the immigrant share of interest is Albanian and Moroccan share respectively. The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when the winning party in the municipal election has a political ideology mentioned in the title of each graph and 0 otherwise. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level.

Figure 22: Local Tax Revenue Composition



The graphs above plot the coefficients from the event study for the interaction terms between the immigrant share of interest fixed at its 2003 level and year dummies. The red dot refers to the regression in which the immigrant share of interest is Romanian share whereas the light blue diamond and the blue triangle correspond to separate regressions where the immigrant share of interest is Albanian and Moroccan share respectively. The dependent variable is the tax collection corresponding to the title of the graph as a share of municipal government revenue. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level.

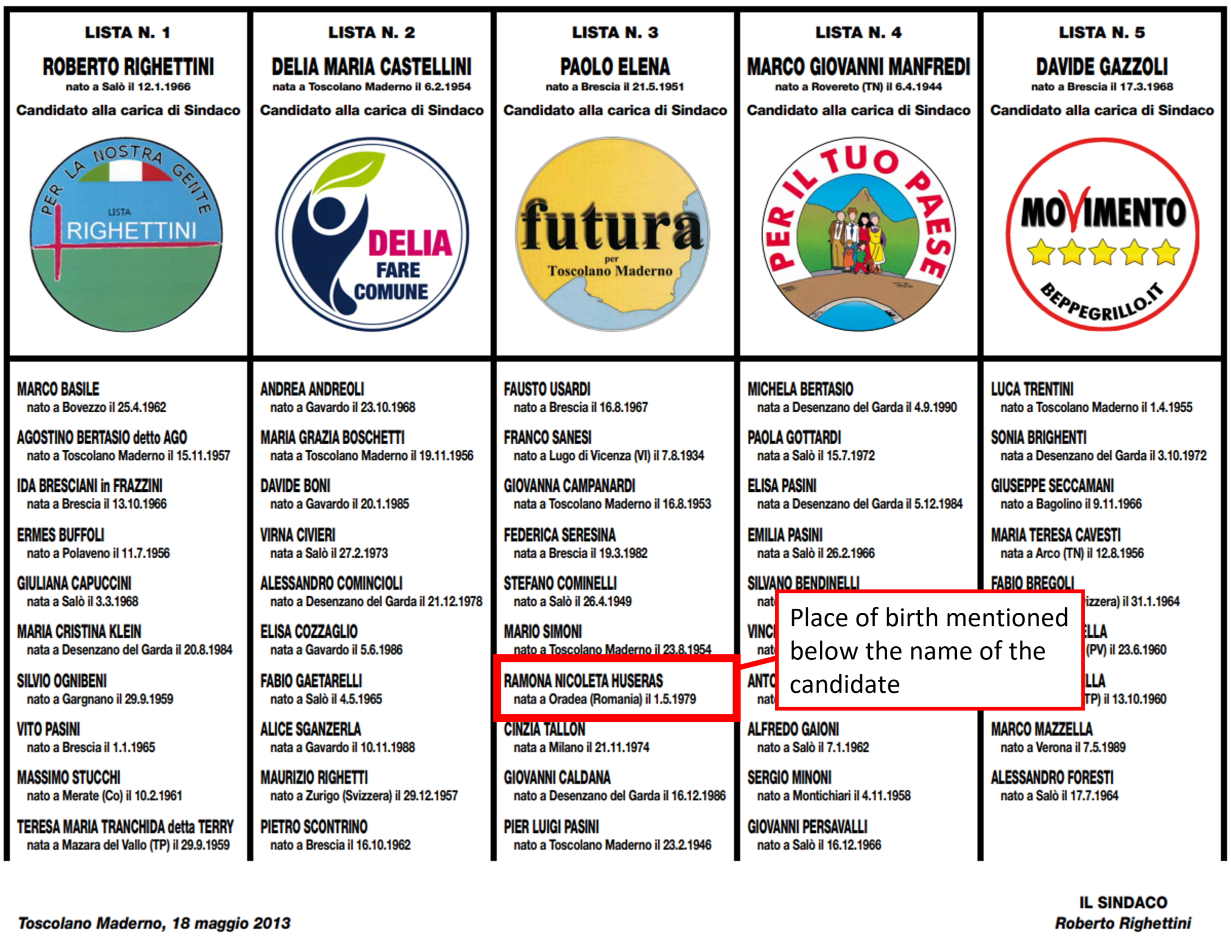
Figure 23: Local Expenditure Breakdown



The graphs above plot the coefficients from the event study for the interaction terms between the immigrant share of interest fixed at its 2003 level and year dummies. The red dot refers to the regression in which the immigrant share of interest is Romanian share whereas the light blue diamond and the blue triangle correspond to separate regressions where the immigrant share of interest is Albanian and Moroccan share respectively. The dependent variable is the level of spending corresponding to the title of the graph as a share of municipal government total expenditure. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level.

Appendix

Figure A.1: Roster of Candidates in a Municipal Election



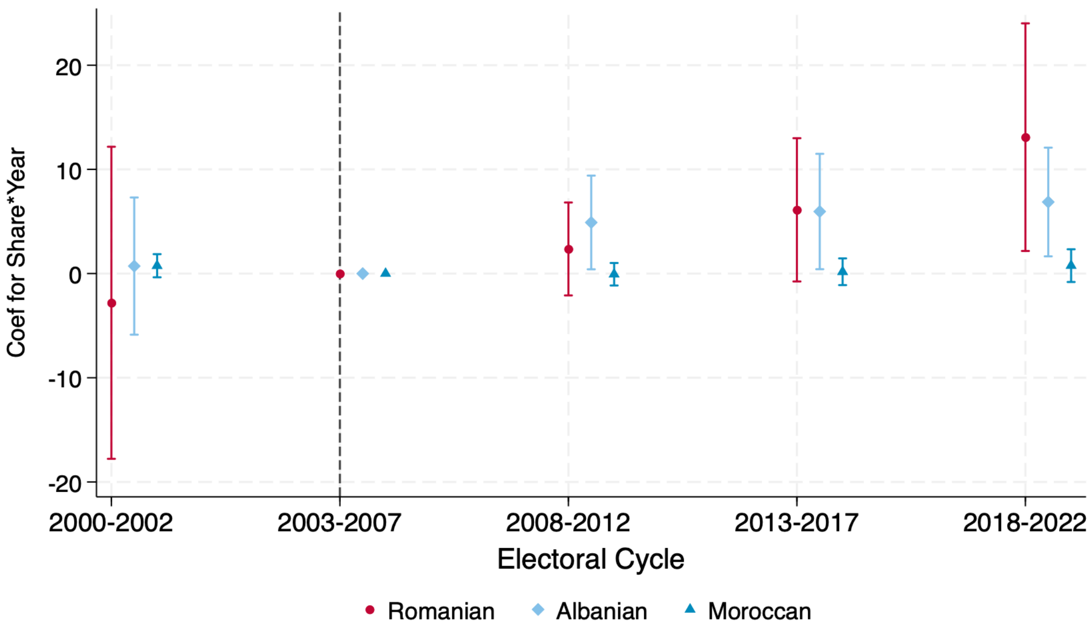
LISTA N. 1	LISTA N. 2	LISTA N. 3	LISTA N. 4	LISTA N. 5
ROBERTO RIGHETTINI nato a Salò il 12.1.1966 Candidato alla carica di Sindaco	DELIA MARIA CASTELLINI nata a Toscolano Maderno il 6.2.1954 Candidato alla carica di Sindaco	PAOLO ELENA nato a Brescia il 21.5.1951 Candidato alla carica di Sindaco	MARCO GIOVANNI MANFREDI nato a Rovereto (TN) il 6.4.1944 Candidato alla carica di Sindaco	DAVIDE GAZZOLI nato a Brescia il 17.3.1968 Candidato alla carica di Sindaco
PER LA NOSTRA GENTE LISTA RIGHETTINI	DELIA FARE COMUNE	futura per Toscolano Maderno	PER IL TUO PAESE	MOVIMENTO BEPPEGRILLO.IT
MARCO BASILE nato a Bovezzo il 25.4.1962	ANDREA ANDREOLI nato a Gavardo il 23.10.1968	FAUSTO USARDI nato a Brescia il 16.8.1967	MICHELA BERTASIO nata a Desenzano del Garda il 4.9.1990	LUCA TRENTINI nato a Toscolano Maderno il 1.4.1955
AGOSTINO BERTASIO detto AGO nato a Toscolano Maderno il 15.11.1957	MARIA GRAZIA BOSCHETTI nata a Toscolano Maderno il 19.11.1956	FRANCO SANESI nato a Lugo di Vicenza (VI) il 7.8.1934	PAOLA GOTTARDI nata a Salò il 15.7.1972	SONIA BRIGHENTI nata a Desenzano del Garda il 3.10.1972
IDA BRESCIANI in FRAZZINI nata a Brescia il 13.10.1966	DAVIDE BONI nato a Gavardo il 20.1.1985	GIOVANNA CAMPANARDI nata a Toscolano Maderno il 16.8.1953	ELISA PASINI nata a Desenzano del Garda il 5.12.1984	GIUSEPPE SECCAMANI nato a Bagolino il 9.11.1966
ERMES BUFFOLI nato a Polaveno il 11.7.1956	VIRNA CIVIERI nata a Salò il 27.2.1973	FEDERICA SERESINA nata a Brescia il 19.3.1982	EMILIA PASINI nata a Salò il 26.2.1966	MARIA TERESA CAVESTI nata a Arco (TN) il 12.8.1956
GIULIANA CAPUCCINI nata a Salò il 3.3.1968	ALESSANDRO COMINCIOLI nato a Desenzano del Garda il 21.12.1978	STEFANO COMINELLI nato a Salò il 26.4.1949	SILVANO BENDINELLI nat	FABIO BREGOLI izzera) il 31.1.1964
MARIA CRISTINA KLEIN nata a Desenzano del Garda il 20.8.1984	ELISA COZZAGLIO nata a Gavardo il 5.6.1986	MARIO SIMONI nato a Toscolano Maderno il 23.8.1954	VINC nat	LLA (PV) il 23.6.1960
SILVIO OGNIBENI nato a Gargnano il 29.9.1959	FABIO GAETARELLI nato a Salò il 4.5.1965	RAMONA NICOLETA HUSERAS nata a Oradea (Romania) il 1.5.1979	ANTO nat	LLA TP) il 13.10.1960
VITO PASINI nato a Brescia il 1.1.1965	ALICE SGANZERLA nata a Gavardo il 10.11.1988	CINZIA TALLON nata a Milano il 21.11.1974	ALFREDO GAIONI nato a Salò il 7.1.1962	MARCO MAZZELLA nato a Verona il 7.5.1989
MASSIMO STUCCHI nato a Merate (Co) il 10.2.1961	MAURIZIO RIGHETTI nato a Zurigo (Svizzera) il 29.12.1957	GIOVANNI CALDANA nato a Desenzano del Garda il 16.12.1986	SERGIO MINONI nato a Montichiari il 4.11.1958	ALESSANDRO FORESTI nato a Salò il 17.7.1964
TERESA MARIA TRANCHIDA detta TERRY nata a Mazara del Vallo (TP) il 29.9.1959	PIETRO SCONTRINO nato a Brescia il 16.10.1962	PIER LUIGI PASINI nato a Toscolano Maderno il 23.2.1946	GIOVANNI PERSAVALLI nato a Salò il 16.12.1966	

Toscolano Maderno, 18 maggio 2013

IL SINDACO
Roberto Righettini

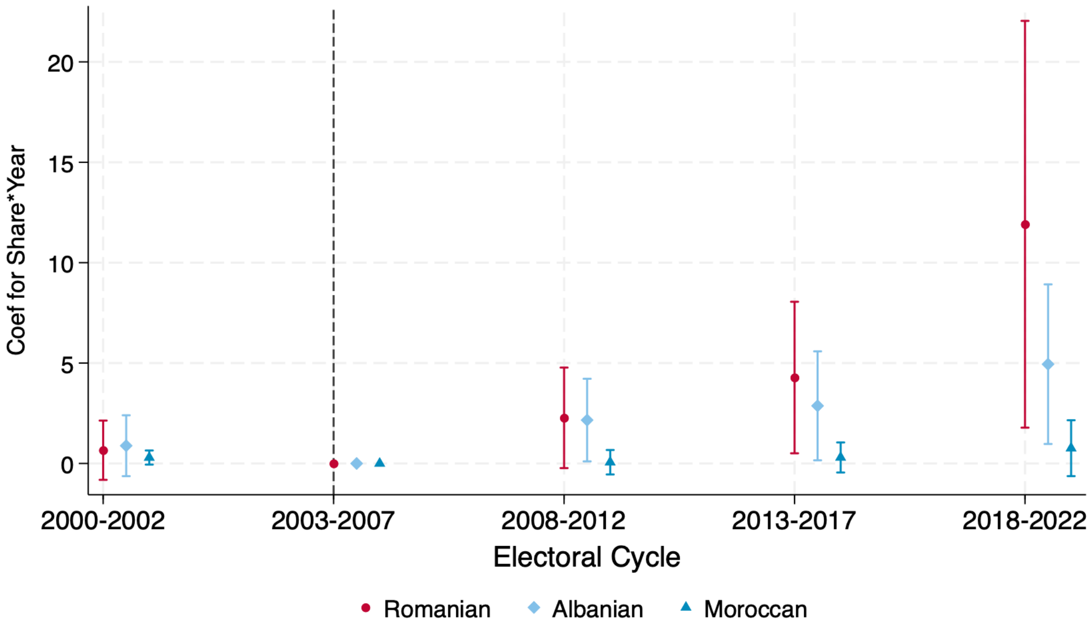
The figure shows an example roster from a municipal election in Italy. The roster contains the name, birthplace, and date of birth of all candidates, as well as their party affiliation.

Figure A.2: Event Study for *number* of immigrant candidates and immigrant share fixed at its 2003 Level (Municipality Fixed Effect)



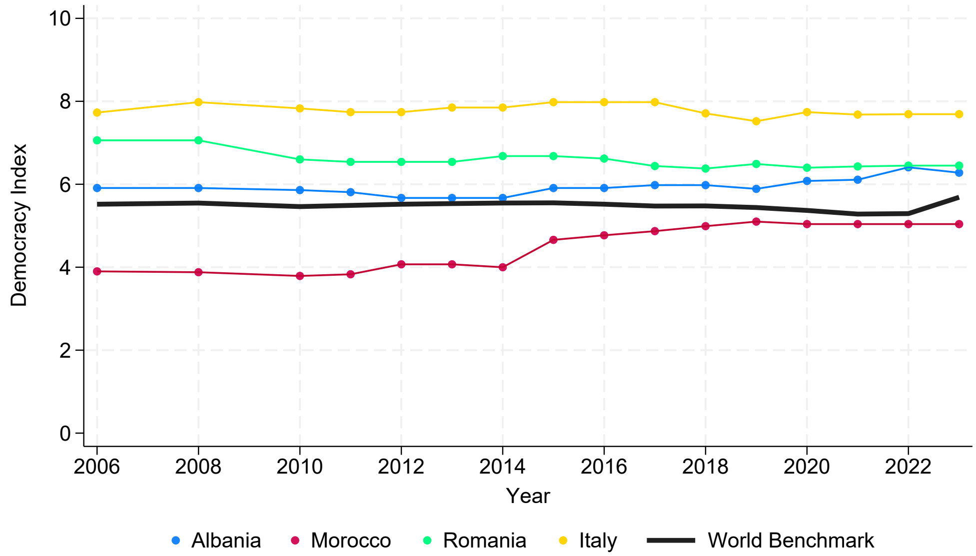
The graph above plots the coefficients from the event study where the years are collapsed to the corresponding electoral cycles. The plotted coefficients are for the interaction terms between Immigrants' share fixed at its 2003 level and cycle dummies. The dependent variable is the total number of Romanian-born, Albanian-born or Moroccan-born candidates in the given year. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level. Sample: 333 municipalities for which we have place of birth.

Figure A.3: Event Study for probability of having an immigrant candidate and immigrant share fixed at its 2003 Level (Municipality Fixed Effect) With Trentino-Alto Adige



The graph above plots the coefficients from the event study where the years are collapsed to the corresponding electoral cycles. The plotted coefficients are for the interaction terms between Immigrants' share fixed at its 2003 level and cycle dummies. The dependent variable is an indicator variable equal to 1 when the given municipality has a Romanian-born, Albanian-born or Moroccan-born candidate in the given year and 0 otherwise. The regression separately controls for municipality and year fixed effect respectively. Standard errors are clustered at the municipality level. Sample: 333 municipalities for which we have place of birth plus all the 343 municipalities of Trentino and Alto-Adige, for which we have only names. We assign Romanian origin (but not Albanian or Moroccan) based on names using Ethnea as discussed in Footnote 9.

Figure A.4: Democracy Index



Source: Economist Intelligence Unit (2006-2023) – processed by Our World in Data

The figure shows the democracy index for the countries of interest. The first index was calculated in 2006, with reports published biennially until 2010 and annually thereafter.